伍、西南少數民族蟲獸偏旁命名考略

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一、引　言

民國28年1月，中央研究院接准中國國民黨中央執行委員會社會部公函，略謂："據中國大衆文化社呈，爲我國邊疆民族之名稱常因'猺族'、'獞族'、'玀玀'等犬旁名詞，引起國人之歧視；請予糾正，以免誤會，等情。查所呈不無見地。惟此等民族各自有其歷史上構成之因素；應如何修改方爲妥善，擬請貴院詳加研究"，云云。當經由院函轉本所辦理。作者因曾從事考定我國四方少數民族名稱之工作，遂與起草改正蟲獸偏旁命名之役。乃就舊蒐，略加參稽，計得西南少數民族俗用蟲獸偏旁之命名凡50；遂釐訂改正原則，編成改正字表，並附說明函覆去後。當由社會部先送教育部簽具意見，然後呈請中央執行委員會核定。執委會又將原案抄送教育部陳立夫部長及中央研究院歷史語言研究所傅斯年所長審核，後復由社會部於本年1月間會同教育部及中央研究院代表商討，就原案及各方意見決定三點，並訂定改正原則二條

* 本文原載中央研究院歷史語言研究所人類學集刊第2卷第1，2期合刊，民國30年（1941），成都。

送請中央秘書處函轉中央研究院詳訂改正西南少數民族命名表。作者復與改正之役。爰更就近來調查所知，益以參考載籍所及，先將蟲獸偏旁命名加以增補，再依據三機關會商決定之原則，一一重加改正成表；首列凡例十二條，次說明六十六條，末附改正字對照表二。改訂時先後曾蒙凌純聲、梁思永、董作賓、丁聲樹、勞幹、董同龢諸先生多所指正。脫稿後復承傅斯年所長及諸先生審閱一過，而後函覆中央秘書處，以備採擇。同仁中有以表中所收頗多同族異稱，因地殊號之命名，謂應加以考定者。作者亦自覺不應不予說明。惟因不合訂表之例，爰別草此文，以補該表之所不及焉。

二、綜　考

中國四方少數民族之以蟲獸偏旁命名，由來已久。"蠻"、"貊"（亦作"貉"）、"狄"、"猺"（亦作"傜"），見於先秦經籍；"蜒"、"獽"、"獠"、"獞"，並見漢後史乘。宋、元以來，以犬旁字命名者尤多。考書堯典所記："流共工於幽洲（孟子作州，史記作陵），放驩兜於崇山，竄（孟子作殺，史記作遷）三苗於三危，殛鯀於羽山"。史記五帝本紀謂："以變北狄、南蠻、西戎、東夷。"漢馬融謂："北裔、南裔、西裔、東裔。"劉宋裴駰史記集解引鄭玄云："左傳：帝鴻氏不才子謂之渾敦，少皞氏不才子謂之窮奇，顓頊氏不才子謂之杌檮，縉雲氏不才子謂之饕餮。命驩兜，舉共工，則驩兜爲渾敦也，共工爲窮奇也，鯀爲檮杌也，而三苗爲饕餮也。"（唐孔穎達尚書正義引。）按渾敦（註1）、窮奇（註2）、檮杌（註3）、饕餮（註4）皆惡獸之名，乃以爲四凶之號。是遠在荒古，早已以獸名名四裔之人矣。降及六朝，尤多以獸類呼異族。魏書（卷96）司馬叡傳云："中原冠帶，呼江東之人皆爲'貉子'，若狐貉類云。巴、蜀、蠻、獠、谿、俚、楚、越，鳥聲禽呼，言語不同，猴趍魚鱉，嗜慾皆異"。或且詈之爲狗。劉宋劉義慶世說新語容止篇記溫嶠勸庾亮見陶寬之語云：

註1：唐孔穎達左傳正義引服虔云："山海經：驩兜人面馬喙，渾敦亦爲獸名。"

註2：漢書司馬相如傳："窮奇象犀。唐顏師古註引張揖云：窮奇狀如牛而蝟毛，其音如嗥狗，食人。"

註3：唐孔穎達左傳正義引服虔云："神異經：檮杌狀如虎，毫長二尺，人面虎足豬牙，尾長丈八，能鬥不退"

註4：同上引服虔云："神異經：饕餮獸名，身如牛，人面，目在腋下，食人。"

"溪狗我所悉，卿但見之，必無憂也。"又南史胡諧之傳記范柏年罵詈之語云："胡諧是何溪狗？"蓋皆鄙薄異族而視同獸類也。故後世對於異族命名之加蟲獸偏旁，多以爲鄙薄其族類。如明周祈名義考九夷條云："北狄從犬，西羌從羊，性類犬羊也"。近人章炳麟氏檢論序種姓上亦云："野謂之狄、貉、蠻、閩，擬以蟲、獸"。自注："狄、貉諸名，皆鄙薄異族爲之辭。"劉錫藩嶺表記蠻云："吾人從前賤視蠻族，於其種族名稱文字從犬，從蟲，從革，從豸，以辱之者。"然此特可作一解耳。試一深究之，則知以蟲獸偏旁命名之意義，絕非鄙薄一語所能概括也。

漢許愼說文解字云："蠻，南蠻，蛇種，從蟲，䜌聲"（見蟲部）。又："閩，東南越，蛇種，從蟲，門聲"（見同上）。"貉，北方豸種，從豸，各聲"（見豸部）。"狄，赤狄，本犬種……從犬，亦省聲"（見犬部）。是蠻、閩、貉、狄之從蟲獸偏旁，蓋認爲蟲獸種族也。許氏之書流傳至今已千八百餘年。自來箋注疏證說文者，不下百數十家，而關於蠻、閩、貉、狄諸字之解，則十、九因襲許說。故至今猶多信之者。清段玉裁作注，且據以改"羌"之原解謂："羌，西戎，羊種也：從羊儿，羊亦聲"（按原解云："羌，西戎，牧羊人也；從人，從羊，羊亦聲"）。然亦有不囿於許氏之解而別創其說者，如宋戴侗六書故狄字注云：

> 戎、狄之人，生於深山狐虎之鄉，故狄、貊、貙、狁從犬、從豸；蠻、越之人，生於蟲蛇之鄉，故閩、蠻、巴、蜀從蟲；猶荆、楚之以草木名也。

明周祈名義考九夷條亦云：

> 南蠻從蟲，地多蛇虺也。

清徐灝說文解字注箋，羌、狄二字箋並引戴侗之說，其羌下案語云：

> 此說最確。羌之從羊，亦猶是矣。其地產羊，故牧羊者衆，而造字因之借爲語詞。

又蠻字箋云：

> 南方多蟲蛇，故蠻、閩從蟲，皆名其地，而移以言人耳。

近人陳啓彤說文疑義亦云：

> 羌從羊，從人，史記索隱作"牧羊人也"。其言甚是。蓋其地多羊，人民游牧以爲俗，故得羌名，而羌字因從羊從人。蠻從蟲，䜌聲，閩從蟲，門聲；按從

蟲者，原南方卑濕而氣暖，蟲類蕃殖，其民每畜蟲以毒人，所謂蠱也，至今苗人尙有此俗。狄從犬，亦省聲；按亦，人之臂亦也，當訓爲使犬人也，今蒙古尙有使犬之俗，此其證也。貉從豸，各聲；後漢書列女傳注："貉大如驢，狀頗似熊"。北方產貉，因名其人種亦曰貉。蓋東亞文明，我族實先進於農業，比於其他種人，文化已顯然不同，故稱他種人每以其習俗物產爲名，示別於我也。

上引陳氏之說，雖不無可議之處；然其所云以習俗物產爲名，準諸事理，則頗允當。蓋卽由於環境俗尙而命以蟲獸名號也。

余嘗考說文解字一書，據許氏自叙云："博採通人，至於小大，信而有證，稽譔其說"。則其所云蛇種、豸種及犬種，當必有所本。是其說必起於東漢以前。其所根據之直接傳說，雖已不可考，然據山海經所記有："厭火國，獸身"（海外南經）；"軒轅之國，人面蛇身"（海外西經）；"氐人國，人面而魚身"（海內南經）；"蠪非，人面獸身"（海內北經）；"環拘，獸首人身"（同上）諸種人；其人皆具蟲獸之形，殆卽所謂蟲獸種族。意者許氏所據以爲蟲種、豸種及犬種之說者，或卽類此。夫山海經所謂獸首、獸身、蛇身、及魚身之說，余意以爲本不過形容之辭，正如史記李將軍傳謂："廣爲人長猿臂"，後漢書班超傳謂："燕頷虎頸"（東觀漢紀作虎頭）。不過形容李廣之臂如猿，班超之頷如燕，而頸或頭如虎也。而一經輾轉傳說，世乃以爲眞有獸首、獸身、蛇身、及魚身之人矣。許氏不察，據類此之傳說爲解，於是蛇種、豸種及犬種之說，遂流傳至今。然則吾人讀許氏蠻、閩、貉、狄之解，固不應信以爲眞有所謂蛇種、豸種、及犬種矣。

然在許氏之後，傳說又有槃瓠犬種。漢應劭風俗通義，晉郭璞玄中記及山海經海內北經犬封國註，干寶晉紀及搜神記，宋范曄後漢書南蠻傳等書均記之（諸書所記，已引見拙作苗族的洪水故事與伏羲女媧的傳說一文，茲不贅）。應、郭二氏並認人犬配偶而有槃瓠氏，或狗封之民：干、范二氏皆以蠻、夷爲槃瓠犬種。而范氏之書，自唐、宋以來定爲正史，後世引據之者尤多。明、清以來，西南各省通志，各府廳州縣志，以及私家著述，凡言及蠻、夷者，幾無不引用范氏之說。然辨正之者亦頗多，唐杜佑卽謂其怪誕不經。通典邊防典南蠻上槃瓠種條按語有云：

瞱云："高辛氏募能得犬戎之吳將軍頭者，購黃金千鎰，邑萬家，妻以少女"。

按黃金周以前爲斤，秦以二十兩爲鎰，三代以前分土，自秦、漢分人；又周末始有將軍之官，其吳氏自周命氏。瞱皆以爲高辛之代，何不詳之甚？

但杜氏並未辨槃瓠本身之問題。至宋羅泌始言槃瓠非蠻人之祖。路史發揮論槃瓠之妄條云：

槃瓠者，特獩狗之轉爾。按玄中記："槃瓠浮之東南海中，是爲犬封氏"。蓋因本風俗通義，然亦不謂蠻人之祖。

蠻人之祖爲誰？羅氏引伯益經云："卞明（山海經作弄明）生白犬，是爲蠻人之祖"。並云："卞明，黃帝之曾孫也。白犬者，乃其子之名。蓋若後世之烏滸、犬子、彪奴、虎狗云者，非狗犬也"。

上引諸說，後人多引爲懷疑槃瓠之證。但亦有信其事非盡無因者。清嚴如煜苗防備覽雜識有云：

夫以蘆降之典，下及犬羊，事固荒誕不經，而天地之大，何所不有？今苗俗百物皆食，羅雀捕鼠，以爲珍味，而獨禁食狗肉。則槃瓠之說，非盡無因。

然則果何因乎？嚴氏無以爲解也。吾人欲解釋此因。應先考察所謂蠻、夷之實際生活。距今三十年前（1910—1911），有德國教士勞許納（F. W. Leuschner）氏者，住廣東樂昌，曾三往北江傜山考察，著有中國南方之傜子(Die Yautse in Suedchina)一文（註6）。記一傜人口述之故事如下：

某國王祇生一女，愛之不啻如掌上珠。將及笄時，忽染沉疴，幾至絕命。延有國內四方名醫診治，但均束手無策。絕望之餘，其父乃出示懸賞：如有人能救治其女者，允將其女配爲妻室。後治愈其病者，乃屬一偉大奇犬。其父見之，不覺毛髮聳然。旋由愛女及諸臣之婉勸，卽將其女許狗爲妻。彼乃偕妻同居山間，後乃生一子。惟不久伊夫喪亡，母子二人乃居山中營生，當其子長大成人時，卽與母親脫離關係。伊乃寡居他處，頭部圍一大布，另以植物之汁自行染黃其臉。一日偶遇其長大成人之子在外狩獵，彼亦不知伊爲親生之母，以爲外人，故卽娶之爲妻。因此相傳至今（譯文據丁陛璋氏未刊稿）。

註6：Mitteilungen der Dentschen Gesellschaft fur Natur-und Volkerkunde Ostasiens, Band XIII, Teil 3, pp. 237-235. Tokyo, 1911.

距今九年前（民20年），有龐新民氏曾隨國立中山大學生物採集隊入廣西傜山，嘗調查各傜村之風俗習慣，著有廣西傜山調查雜記一文（註7），記有板傜之故事如下：

> 板傜祖先形係狗頭。昔日某國王因外患難平，乃出佈告云：如有人能平此患，願以其女妻之。板傜之祖先往平之，後向某國王求婚。國王視之，乃一狗頭者，欲毀婚；其女不可，乃相與入山。某國王並封之爲王，因名狗頭王。後狗頭王夫婦居山中有年，生子女各七人。爾時山中並無其他人類，狗頭王之子女遂由姊妹兄弟結爲夫婦，各個散處各深山窮谷中，以自謀生活，繁衍蕃傳，卽今之板傜也。故板傜於今常云："吾之始祖乃國王之駙馬，吾之始祖母乃國王之愛女也"。

讀上述兩故事，可知傜人固自承其爲狗種也。距今五、六年前（1934--1935），本所凌純聲先生應雲南教育廳之請，曾至雲南調查民族；在河口附近之傜村，發見其在住屋之中堂，家家供奉槃瓠神位。則傜人不獨自承爲狗種，亦且以槃瓠爲其標幟矣。凌先生謂爲傜人之圖騰信仰。以現代民族學或文化人類學之觀點言之，似可無疑。圖騰者，乃一類物件之爲初民所崇拜、信仰，以爲與之有神秘的關係者也（註8）。其所崇拜之物件，大多數爲動物、植物，無生物則甚少。如北美辛尼加氏族（Seneca Iroquois Clans）之以龜、熊、狼、鷹等爲圖騰，並在門上刻此等動物之形象（註9）。大多數之圖騰民族又常有圖騰禁忌。如中非（Ruanda）水牛族（Buffalo people）之不吃水牛，謂彼等乃其後裔也（註10）。然則"猺"字之從犬，不能謂與其圖騰信仰無關也。至嚴氏所云苗俗不吃狗肉，或卽爲其圖騰禁忌（註11）。此外如明鄺露赤雅所記蜑家神宮畫蛇以祭之俗，疑亦爲其圖騰信仰。"蜑"字之從虫，或亦由此乎？惟吾人

註7：國立中央研究院歷史語言研究所集刊第四本，頁45—82。

註8：比較 Sir J. G. Frazer: Totemism and Exogamy (Vol. 1, P. 3) 及 J. Deniker: The Races of Man (P.247) 二書圖騰之界說。

註9：看 R. H. Lowie: An Introduction to Cultural Anthropology, Chap. XIV, p. 253。

註10：同上。

註11：就作者所知，湘西苗族雖不吃狗肉，但並無禁食之俗；故在苗族的洪水故事與伏羲女媧的傳說一文中曾謂："沒有關於狗的圖騰崇拜或禁忌"（見人類學集刊第1卷、第1期、頁184）。今據嚴氏之說，則苗族確有禁食狗肉之俗。嚴氏之書，成於清嘉慶25年（1820），距作者在湘西調查苗族之時（1933），不過百餘年，其俗當不至消失。或嚴氏之所謂苗，乃廣義之苗，實卽傜人也。

未能從事實地調查，故尚不敢斷言也。

綜觀以上所論，可見我國四方少數民族之以蟲獸偏旁命名，至少當有四解：

一曰，鄙薄異族之心理；

二曰，蟲獸種族之謬說；

三曰，由於環境習尚；

四曰，由於圖騰信仰。

然今所習見之數十種蟲獸偏旁命名，（宋、元以來，東北、西北之少數民族，已罕見用蟲獸偏旁字命名者，而西南少數民族，則用蟲獸偏旁，尤以用犬旁字命名者獨多）準諸事實，大多數皆由於鄙薄異族之心理而來；其眞信以爲蟲獸種族者，蓋亦不多。至以環境習尚或圖騰信仰得名者，則吾人亦甚少能斷言者。考隋、唐以前之以蟲獸偏旁命名者，不過蠻、閩、蜑、蟾、貉、狄、獫狁（卽堯時之獯鬻，獯本作熏，其犬旁當係漢後人所加）、獽、獠、獞、狼等十餘種；至宋、元乃有猫（今通作"苗"）、猺（宋以前作"傜"或"徭"）、獞、犵狫、犵獞、犵狫、犵獠、犵獦等稱。明清以來，更有狸（漢時作"俚"或"里"）、猓玀、猓黑、猓武、阿猓、玀緬、猓猓、狫（或作"狅"）、阿猖、狫猡、狆獚、狢獀、狢獫（又作貉獫）、狆、狙（或作"貀"）、獷、狗、豽、狹、狙、獐獞、狹、狆、喇猲（又作獦獦）、狄、狄、狌、獌、狻（或作"貓"）、狪雞（狪或作"猢"，雞或作"幾"）、玃喇（玃或作"獍"），獯（或作"驃"）、羯些等稱；其字亦皆近三數百年來之字書始收之，且有不少係近出字典始收之者，如猓、猓、狫、獞、狄、狌、獌、狻、等，至獽、豽、豽、玀、狍、狐、狁、玀、獦、鵝等字，卽近出字典亦皆未收。蓋顯然由後人假借獸名或杜撰犬旁字以名之也。

以下係就改正表所收西南少數民族之用蟲獸偏旁字命名者，略考其在載籍中命名用字之流別，及其族類之同異，間亦摘錄前人關於各族習俗特性之記載。至關於圖騰信仰之來源，在未從事各族之實地調查以前，除上述信而有徵之傜人外，則不敢作無根據之臆測也。

以下所云蟲獸偏旁，可分蟲旁、犬旁，犬旁兼用牛旁，犬旁兼用馬旁，及羊旁五

類，玆分別考之。

三、蟲旁字命名考

1. 蠻(今改"滿"，看附錄改正說明66)——蠻之名見於詩，書，詩小雅采芑傳："蠢爾蠻、荆。……蠻、荆來威"。又角弓："如蠻如髦"。又大雅抑："用逿蠻方"。韓弈："因時百蠻"。魯頌閟宮："淮、夷、蠻、貊"。書堯典："蠻、夷率服。……蠻、夷猾夏"。又禹貢："三百里蠻"。武成："華、夏、蠻、貊"。旅獒："遂通道於九夷八蠻"。此外周禮職方氏及禮明堂位並言八蠻，(註12)，爾雅釋地又言六蠻(註13)。其解頗多：禮王制云："南方曰蠻"。采芑傳云："荆州之蠻也"。角弓傳云："南蠻也"。抑箋云："蠻方，蠻畿之外也"。韓弈傳云："蠻服之百國也。"禹貢馬融註云："蠻，慢也，禮簡怠慢，來不拒，去不禁"。鄭玄註云："蠻者，聽從其俗，羈縻其人耳，故云'蠻'。蠻之言，縵也"。據禮王制及詩傳之說，蠻爲南方之種族名；而書馬鄭註所云，則其聲訓也。其字在金文作𤔔，本不從虫(註14)；其從蟲之蠻，蓋始於秦之小篆。是許愼南蠻蛇種之說，乃據小篆"蠻"字，依傍傳說爲解。自漢以來，歷代史乘多記蠻事，久爲南方及西南民族之總稱。故唐樊綽蠻書所記西南數十種族類，概以蠻稱之。清魏源作蠻之界說云："各長其部，割據一方之謂蠻。……若漢書：南夷君長以十數，夜郎最大；其西靡莫之屬以十數，滇最大；自滇以北君長以十數，邛都最大。在唐宋爲羈縻州，在元爲宣慰、宣撫、招討、安撫、長官等土司。其受地遠自周、漢，近自唐、宋，而元、明賞功受地之土府州縣，亦錯出其間，其蠻乎？"(註15)是明、清以來，西南各省土司皆爲蠻，俗稱其人爲"蠻子"此廣義之"蠻"也。有冉家蠻、黎州蠻、建昌蠻、牂牁蠻、東謝蠻等稱。然清代各家所記之蠻人，謂在新添、丹行二司（卽今貴州貴定、都匀二縣地）。如田雯黔書云：

註12：周禮職方氏："四夷、八蠻、七閩、九貉、五戎、六狄之人民"：禮明堂位"八蠻之國"。梁皇侃論語義疏云："南有八蠻—天竺、二咳首、三僬僥、四跋踵、五穿胸、六儇耳、七狗知、八旁育。"

註13：爾雅釋地："九夷、八狄、七戎、六蠻"。

註14：看清吳大澂：說文古籀補、或近人容庚：金文編。

註15：見聖武記卷七、雍正西南夷改流記上。

"蠻人在新添備、丹行二司。性獷戾，以丑戌爲場，十月朔日爲節，祭鬼爲樂"。則又狹義之"蠻"矣。

2. 蜑（今改"蜑"，看附錄改正說明65）——蜑之名始於漢。說文解字蟲部云："蜑、南方夷也，從蟲，延聲，徒旱切"。清鄭珍說文新附考云："蓋漢以來乃有此種夷稱號。其文作'蜑'，止是古蜿蜒字易置偏旁耳"。晉常璩華陽國志巴志云："巫、北井、還、建平、但五縣，……北接房陵、奴獽、夷蜑之蠻民"。又："漢髮縣有鹽井諸縣，北有獽、蜑"。隋書地理志："長沙郡雜有夷、蜑"，又南蠻傳："南蠻雜類，與華人錯居，曰蜒、曰獽、曰俚、曰獠、曰𤞟"（註16）。其字卽作蜒。又："蜀郡有獽、狿"，則又作"狿"。按漢書司馬相如傳："宛延"，揚雄傳作"宛蜒"。清鈕樹玉說文新附考云："蜒，蓋延之俗字"，是蜑或蜒，本不從蟲。玉篇但有蜒，隋書地理志獽、狿之狿從犬，據鄭知同謂俗改從犬以配獽，其說甚是（註17）。其字通多作蜑，據晉書音義又作蛋，蓋省體也（註18）。其人歷漢、晉、隋、唐諸代爲洞居民族，故韓愈清河郡公房公墓碣銘云："林蠻洞蜑"（註19），柳宗元嶺南節度使饗軍堂記以胡、夷、蜑、蠻連稱（註20）。其洞居之分佈地域，據載籍可考者，爲今之四川、湖南、兩廣等地。但自宋以來，則各家所記，皆云水居。宋范成大桂海虞衡志云："蜑，海上水居蠻也。以舟楫爲家，採海物爲生"。又周去非嶺外代答云："以舟爲室，視水爲陸，浮生江海者，蜑也。欽之蜑有三：一爲魚蜑，善擧網垂綸；二爲蠔蜑，善沒海取蠔；三爲木蜑，善伐山取材"。盧亭（亭或作停）（註21），龍人（註22），龍戶（註23），皆其異稱也。或謂蜑卽狚，近人劉錫藩嶺表紀蠻云：今吾桂三江及黔南一帶，尙有所謂狚族者。蜒與狚同音，是必在陸爲狚，在水爲蜑，最先原爲一族，其後

註16：北史蠻獠傳亦云："禮云：南方曰蠻。有不火食者矣。然其種類非一，與華人錯居，其流曰蜑、曰獽、曰俚、曰獠、曰𤞟"。按此所記，與隋書同，惟蜑與蜒易置偏旁耳。

註17：鄭珍：說文新附考蜑下鄭知同按云："蜀郡有獽、狿，則俗改從犬配獽"。

註18：蛋，據晉書音義，見文字集略，至梁阮孝緒始收之。

註19：見昌黎先生集卷27。

註20：柳先生集卷26。

註21：嶺外代答謂廣州有蜑，一種名曰盧亭。

註22：明田汝成：炎徼紀聞云："以知龍居，故又名龍人"。

註23：明羅曰褧：咸賓錄云："一謂之龍戶"。

逃竄分離，因而發生字異耳（參看19狪考）。

以上僅考蟲旁命名蠻、蜑二種。此外，周禮職方氏有"七閩"華陽國志巴志有蟾夷（註24），其閩、蟾二命名，亦皆從蟲。惟以閩爲東南越蛇種之說，僅見於說文解字，其後久爲福建之別稱；蟾則自常氏以後，即不見記載，其種人今已無考，故改正表均未收，玆考亦從略。

四、犬旁字命名考（附別寫獠、貉、貙三豸旁字）

1. 獠或獽（今改僚，看附錄改正說明51），土獠（今改土僚，看同上52）與狫獽（今改仡僚，看同上10）——"獠"，說文："獵也"；玉篇始釋爲夷名。集韻、類篇並云："西南夷也。一曰土人自謂獠，獞別種。本作獽，亦作'獠'，僚（參看22，獞考）。晉張華博物志異俗篇云："荆州極西南界至蜀諸民曰獠子"。按博物志一書，雖有後人綴集成份；然晉時之有獠，當時載籍固多記之。華陽國志李特雄壽勢志云："蜀土無獠，至是（晉康帝建元元年（343），是年壽卒，勢立）始從山出。自巴至犍爲、梓潼，布滿山谷，大爲民患。"又宋郭允蹈蜀鑑據梁李膺益州記謂："昔康帝建元元年，李壽從牂牁引獠入蜀"。按晉時之牂牁，固在荆州極西南界，而與蜀境毗連，是與博物志所記正相吻合。魏書獠傳云："獠之初也，出自梁、益之間，種類甚多"。北史蠻獠傳云："獠者，蓋南蠻之別種；自漢中達於邛、笮川洞之間，所在皆有，種類甚多。……建國中，李勢在蜀，諸獠始出巴西、渠川、廣漢、陽安、資中、攻破郡縣，爲益州大患"。唐劉恂嶺表錄異云："夷人通商於邕州石溪口，至今謂之獠市"。可見六朝、隋、唐之際，獠族之分佈頗廣。而當時史家，遂多以夷、獠或蠻、獠並稱。杜甫有示獠奴阿段詩，蓋唐人帶僱傭獠人爲奴也。宋代在廣西之獠，種類尤多。范成大桂海虞衡志云："獠在右江溪峒之外，俗謂之山獠。……舊傳其類有飛頭、鑿齒、鼻飲、白衫、花面、赤褲之屬二十一種。今在江西南一帶甚多，殆百餘種也。周去非嶺外代答所記略同。明、清各家所記，除飛頭獠外，有白棍獠子（赤雅、說蠻）、峒獠（天下郡國利病書）、海獠（桯史）、仡獠（說蠻）、土獠（滇志、

註24：漢髮縣有鹽井諸縣，北有寧、晉，又有蟾夷也。

南詔野史、滇海虞衡志、滇南雜志、清職貢圖等）、姆姥（宜山及天河兩縣縣册）各山子（峒谿纖志、清職貢圖）等稱。實皆廣義之僚也（參看25；犵狫、犵獠、獦獠、猞獠、犵人……等考）按土獠又有花土獠、黑土獠、白土獠之別，即土老也。清職貢圖云："土獠一名土老，亦名各山子，相傳爲鳩獠種，滇中烏蠻之一。至狫獠乃閩、潮之流人，而海獠則爲來自海外之回教徒，均非眞獠也。

2. 狸（今改俚，看附錄改正說明35）——"狸"，玉篇："似貍"；其用爲族名，本多作"俚"，見於晉張華博物志："交州夷名曰俚子。"魏書司馬叡傳、北史蠻獠傳、隋書地理志、南蠻傳亦均記之，其字或作"狸"（註25），亦作"貍"（註26）後漢書又作"里"，南蠻西南夷傳云："九眞徼外蠻里張游"，唐李賢註云："里，蠻之別號，今呼爲俚人。"據清職貢圖謂："俚人卽今之黎人。瓊州府黎人條云："黎人後漢謂之俚人，俗呼山嶺爲"黎"，而俚居其間，於是訛"俚"爲"黎"，散處於瓊屬五指山各峒中。"但據雍正廣西通志云："狸本出廣州，而蒼梧、鬱林諸郡間亦有之"。道光廣東通志亦云："俚人在廣州之南，蒼梧、鬱林、合浦、寧浦、高涼五郡中央，地方數千里，盤踞山險"（註27）。是俚人在粵西與桂東，與黎人之在海南島，分佈地域不同。或海南島之黎人原爲越海移居之粵、桂俚人，久而訛"俚"爲"黎"，正未可知也。

3. 獽（今改"僚"，看附錄改正說明59）——"獽"，集韻："獸名"。其用爲族名，與蜑並稱，見於華陽國志巴志及隋書地理志、南蠻傳、北史蠻獠傳（俱見上引）。宋樂史太平寰宇記簡州風俗云："有獽人，言語與夏不同，嫁娶但鼓笛而已，遭喪乃以竿懸布置其門庭，殯於別所，至其體骸燥，以木函盛、置於山水中。"此外甚少記之者。清顧炎武天下郡國利病書亦係據寰宇記而云簡州有獽人也。

4. 狼（今改俍，看附錄改正說明33）——"狼"，說文："似犬"；其用爲族名，後漢書稱白狼、明帝本紀云："西南夷哀牢、僄耳、僬僥、槃木、白狼、動黏諸

註25：乾隆校刋北史作"狸"。

註26：同上隋書卷82考證云："元本俚訛狸，從閣本改"。

註27：此說似本南州異物志，太平御覽卷 385 引之云：廣州南有賊曰俚，此賊在廣州以南，蒼梧、鬱林、合浦、寧浦、高涼五郡中央，地方數千里"。

種，前後慕義貢獻。"唐代又有狼蠻之稱，新唐書南蠻傳云：" 雋州新安城傍有六姓蠻、四曰狼蠻。惟白狼與狼蠻是否卽爲明 、 清以來之狼人，則不敢斷言 。 至狼人之名，則因其勇悍善戰，久以 "狼兵" 著稱於世，明初卽時奉征調。潯州府志云：" 明永樂二年，猺賊亂，調狼兵征剿，獲勝班師回籍。" 又續文獻通考兵考云：" 景帝景泰四年四月，敕兩廣總督遇警調用狼兵" 。據清陸祚蕃粵西偶記云：" 潯州諸狼，自明宏治間因大藤諸峽亂 ， 從黔中調來征剿 ， 峽平遂戍焉。" 然黔中之狼兵，今已無考。清田雯黔書所載迎春詩 " 有揶揄調笑隨白狼" 之句，是黔中當有白狼族類。因疑狼人或與白狼有關。惟狼兵非皆狼人，明鄭露赤雅云：" 狼兵驁悍，天下稱最，多非眞狼，土官親行部署乃出。性極貪淫，動不可制。" 明胡宗憲籌海圖編亦云：" 廣西狼兵，於今海內爲尤悍，然不易得眞狼也。眞狼兵必土官親行部署纔出，其餘蓋不過柳州所爲水東岩之游民。與廣州新會打手之屬而已，大抵狼兵之中，雜有獞人不少。清顧炎武天下郡國利病書云：" 狼、獞者，高州府所屬州縣節議招取廣西耕守狼兵共 131 村寨，兵 1,763 名；獞 9 寨，兵210名。又：" 茂州狼27寨，招主 3 名，領兵 839 名；獞 7 寨，招主 2 名，領兵約85名。" 故清職貢圖誤以瓕山之獞卽廣西之狼，而民國 9 年桂平縣志更據以認狼、獞爲同類。近人劉錫蕃嶺表紀蠻亦謂：" 狼，獞族之支派也。" 實則狼與獞之關係究竟如何，尙難斷言。

5. 猺（今改 " 傜 " ，看附錄改正說明46）與狨猺（今改 " 莫傜 " ，看附錄改正說明47）—— " 猺 " ，廣韻：" 犬名 " ，集韻：" 獸名 " 。其用爲族名，" 猺原多作莫 " ，猺多作 " 傜 " ，亦作 " 徭 " ，始見於隋書地理志：" 長沙郡又雜有夷、蜑，名曰莫傜，自云其先祖有功，常免傜役，故以爲名。" 唐杜甫詩歲宴行有 " 莫徭射鴈鳴桑弓 " 之句，劉禹錫有觀莫傜獵西山詩及莫傜歌，其字均不從犬。惟其時所謂 " 莫傜 " ，似爲蠻、夷之通稱，蓋謂免徭役之蠻、夷也。宋代始作犬旁，而有猺人之稱。宋史卷 493 溪峒諸蠻傳記太祖得猺人秦再雄鎭撫溪洞諸蠻 。 周去非嶺外代答云：" 猺人者，言其執徭役於中國也。" 范成大桂海虞衡志謂：" 猺本五谿槃瓠之後，其壤接廣右者，靜江之興安、義寧、古田，融州之融水、懷遠縣界皆有之。生深山重溪中，椎髻跣足，不供徭役" 。元、明以來，其分佈地域頗廣，天下郡國利病書云：" 猺本槃瓠之種，產於湖廣溪峒間，卽古長沙、黔中、五溪之蠻是也 ， 其後生息蕃衍 ， 南接二廣，右引

巴、蜀，綿亘數千里。"今其族分佈於湘、桂、粵、滇、黔五省，均稱猺人。其在越南東京山地者，則稱爲蠻（註28），而在廣東合浦之山民（或稱山子），獨尚稱莫徭（註29）。惟其字均從犬，作"獞猺"。

6. 猓玀（今改"倮儸"，看附錄改正說明39），倮黑或玀黑（今改"倮黑"，看附錄改正說明40）、猓武（今改"儸婺"，看附錄改正明說37）、阿猓（今改"阿倮"，看附錄改正說明40）與玀緬（今改"儸緬"，看附錄改正說明60）——"猓"，玉篇："猓狻，獸也"，"玀"，龍龕手鑑："玀伏，僂腰而行也"。猓玀本唐代盧鹿蠻之訛稱，元時稱羅羅蠻，周致中異域志作囉囉。猓玀之稱，見於明楊愼南詔野史、田汝成炎徼紀聞等書。明史通作猓玀，又作玀玀（四川土司傳）。此外尚有玀鬼或羅鬼之稱，清羅繞典黔南職方紀略云："武侯定南中，令六姓各長率其部曲，建寧大姓羅濟火者、有部曲於牂牁、夜郎間，號爲羅甸。隋、唐之際，蠻中推雄長者爲鬼主，其民遂稱羅氏鬼主爲羅鬼，僞爲盧鹿，後又僞爲倮玀"。倮黑之名亦見於南詔野史，謂："蒲蠻別種，擇叢篁深處，結茅而居，蜂蟲鼠蛤，無所不食，以蕎稗爲上品，又有大猓黑、小猓黑，岩居野處，猿（猱）同類"。滇海虞衡志、滇南雜誌等書均作儸黑。南詔野史又有喇五條，謂："亦曰喇烏，又曰喇魯，男如擺夷，女如窩泥，構樓臨水而居，上人下畜，名曰'韋房'。其在騰越州者，食巨蟒毒蟲，或取蜂糟食之。"丁文江氏謂玀黑就是喇烏（註30），蓋以其音相近也。猓武通作羅婺，元時爲羅武蠻，即南詔野史所謂老悟猓玀，野史並云："又名羅午、羅武，男披髮貫耳，披氈佩刀，穿火草布衣；女辮髮垂肩，飾以海貝、硨磲，穿火草布裙。無床幃被褥，以松毛籍地而臥。"阿猓，伯麟圖說謂其性粗略，男婦皆衣麻，春日踏青，削竹至薄，合而持之，含哨嘩諧以爲樂，開化府屬有之"。玀緬通作羅緬，蓋即老緬，南詔野史謂係緬人之一種，乃緬甸國流入者，清陸次雲峒谿纖志云："玀猔在鋪西、硝井等處，採薪拾菌，攜柴棍乞醴酒，醉臥中途"。乾隆雲南通志及滇南雜志均謂祿勸亦有之。

7. 獞（今改"擋"，看附錄改正說明50；按據廣西通志本作擋）——"獞"，

註28：Maurice Abadie: Les Races du Haut-tonkin, pp. 105-146, Paris. 1924.

註29：清職貢圖卷4，合浦縣山民條。

註30：瑤文叢刊自序、中央研究院歷史語言研究所專刊，其序並載地理學報第2卷第4期。

集韻：“犬名”。其用爲族名，始於宋代，爲朱輔溪蠻叢笑葉錢序所記五溪蠻之一。惟叢笑各條，均未記獞事。明、清以來始多記之。明田汝成炎徼紀聞云：“獞人五嶺以南皆有之，與猺雜處，風俗略同，而生理一切陋簡，多編鵝毛雜木葉爲衣，搏飯掬水而食，居舍茅緝而不塗，衡板爲閣，上以棲止，下畜牛羊猪犬，謂之麻欄。善爲毒矢，射人物中者，焦沸若炙，肌骨立盡，雖猺人亦重畏之，不敢忤視。又善爲蠱毒，五月五日聚百蟲於一器，令自啖食，存者留之，持以中人，無不死者。又爲飛蟲，一曰桃生、一曰金蠶，皆鬼屬而毒，人事之可以聚富”。田氏之書，另有明顧名儒刊本，別題行邊紀聞，內容大致相同。惟記獞人有炎徼所未及者，謂：“蓋唐時所稱黃、儂諸賊也。隔絕隘陋，爲獞人外蔀，宋時酋長莫氏納土人貢。遂授安撫使，使世其職羈縻之。獞人始稍稍與漢人往來，遂蔓延嶺海，廣之東西皆浸淫睒伏”（以下與炎徼同）。清職貢圖謂“其性喜攻擊撞突，故曰獞”云。

8. 狫或狫（今改“仡”，看附錄改正說明25）——“狫”，篇海：“猰也”，“狫”，玉篇：“猖也”，正字通：“狫、狫字之僞。”其用爲族名，見於明黃衷海語，謂“其屬出暹羅之崛嶐”，峒谿纖志云：“狫人生崛嶐中，形如猿猱，語咿嚶不可辨，性忠愨，蠻、獠役之採片腦、鶴頂、犀角、象齒，負以輸主，遇人奪之，死亦勿與。只近烟火，遇烟火淚目至死。滇、黔、粵、蜀間皆有之”。

9. 阿猖（今改“阿昌”，看附錄改正說明41）——“猖”，玉篇：“狂駭也”，廣韻：“猖狂”。其用爲族名，本多作“昌”，稱阿昌或峨昌。南詔野史謂阿昌一名峨昌。滇志謂峨昌一名阿昌。其以犬旁之“猖”命名，見於康熙大理府志，謂：“阿猖俱以喇爲姓。”乾隆雲南通志謂：“戛喇耕種類阿猖”。蓋卽緬人所稱之“Maingtha”，阿昌乃其自稱之名也。

10. 狫猕（今改“估倮”，看附錄改正說明16）——“狫”，不見於舊字書，近出字典始收之，其義無考。“猕”，玉篇：“犬生一子”；二字用爲族名，始於明，乃麼些人稱藏人之名也。各家記載均謂西番之別種。楊愼南詔野史云：“古宗，一作狫猕，西番別種皆辮髮百綹，男戴紅纓，穿氆氇，掛銅鈴，佩刀；女飾以珊瑚，銀泡，披氈瓦被單；皆穿烏拉鞾，經年一櫛，櫛必牲祭。春夏種蕎稗，秋冬趕牛馬。取牛羊乳酥調油茶而食，名曰饑飽。又有小古宗，喜獵飲酒，餘略同。”伯麟圖說所記又有

野古宗。

11. 狆（今改"傷"，看附錄改正說明26）與狆獚（今改"傷僥"，看附錄改正說明27）——狆，正字通："狆獚"，犬也；狆獚，玉篇："犬也"。狆獚之用爲族名，始於明，各家記載多謂一曰"楊黃"，或謂又卽楊荒、播州之遺民。蓋與狆人爲同一族類，試以廣西通志所記狆人與貴州通志所計狆獚比較觀之可知。雍正廣西通志云："生理陋簡，荆壁不塗，葦蘆不扃，男子計口而耕，婦人度身而織，暇則漁獵爲業，婚喪以犬相遺"。乾隆貴州通志云："荆壁不塗，門戶不扃，出入以泥封之，男子計口而耕，婦人度身而織，暇則挾戈摻筍，以漁獵爲業，婚喪以犬相遺"，二書所記，蓋全相同也。

12. 狢獁（今改"佫僚"，看附錄改正說明31）與狢獡或貊獡（今並改"佫兪"，看附錄改正說明30）——"狢"，玉篇："狐狢"；廣韻："亦作貊"。其用爲族名有二：一爲狢獁（"獁"，不見於通行字書，其義無考），見於明范守已九夷考，謂："其人矮小，男女俱用布裹頭，短衣赤足，長帶弓弩，絆索，地網，入山捕獵。其性與猓玀略同，住居山野，以草爲屋，開種山地，收取雜糧爲食。疾病以猪羊胎爲醫藥。其俗男女無別，婚姻以牛馬爲聘。語言本類自知，與他夷不通，燕會酒食與麼些同。死葬以布裹屍焚之，棄其骨於水中，永不經由其地，乃於焚時拔草根置小籃內，攜歸以爲祖宗，歲時祭之。一爲狢獡（"獡"，正字通："俗貙字"，爾雅釋獸："貙獡"），亦稱貊貙野人，清果親王西藏誌（卽西藏記）云："狢獡乃野人，名老卡止。嘴割數缺，塗以五色，性喜鹽。其地產茜草、水竹、紫草葺。不耕不織，穴室巢居，獵牲爲食。藏內有犯死罪者，番人解送過江，羣老卡止分而啖之"。黃沛翹西藏圖考所記略同。疑卽緬人所稱之"佧侵"（Kachin）也，其自稱則曰"Chingpaw"，今已開化矣。

13. 狆（今改"令"，看附錄改正說明23）——"狆"，玉篇："犬名"，集韻："良犬也"。其用爲族名，始於明，鄺露赤雅，謂其"雕題高髻，狀若猩狒，散居莽中，不室而處。飢食橡栗，射狐掘鼠，蠭蠆蚯蝮，甘生如薺，卉衣鳥言，重釋四姓"。清職貢圖謂："狆者，另也，諸蠻之外另爲一種，與猺、獞又別，故曰狆人"。黔苗圖說及黔記均稱爲狆家苗，實則非苗也。

14. 狙或狚（今改"但"，看附錄改正說明21）——"狙"、說文—"狙犬也"，廣韻："猿也"，集韻、正韻並"猿屬"；"狚"，廣東新語："犬類也"（註31）。赤雅及廣東新語均記之，謂卽莊生所謂狙公。廣東新語又謂："狚人一作狙人，與狆人皆高髻雕題，狀若猩狒，散居林莽，饑食橡栗"。

15. 獶（今改"儂"，看附錄改正說明56）——"獶"，說文："惡犬也"，玉篇："多毛犬也"，廣韻："長毛犬"；其用爲族名，本作儂人，南詔野史及滇志等書均謂係宋儂智高之後裔。至清代各家記載，始多作獶人，清職貢圖謂其自稱曰獶。又有獶苗之稱（貴州通志、黔苗圖說、黔記等書），羅繞典黔南職方紀略則稱獶家子，並云："儂智高爲狄靑所敗，走泗城、廣南諸府，於是南中有獶家子矣"。

16. 狪（今改"侗"，看附錄改正說明29）——"狪"，集韻："野彘"；其用作族名，始於明，鄺露赤雅謂："狪亦獠類，不喜殺，善音樂，彈胡琴，吹六琯，長歌閉目，頓首搖足爲混沌舞。獠之有狪，猺獞之有大良也"。實則並非獠類而爲獞類，卽峒人。雍正廣西通志云："狪人居谿峒中，又謂之峒人。椎髻、插雉尾，卉衣。其俗貴少賤老，鬚白悉拔去之。春以巨木埋地作樓高數丈，歌者夜則緣宿其上，謂之羅漢樓。羅漢者，惡少也。"或又稱狪家苗、峒苗或洞苗，實則非苗也。

17. 狫（今改"伢"，看附錄改正說明12）——"狫"，玉篇："獸似貙"；其用爲族名，見於清職貢圖、廣西通志、柳州府志、賓州志等書。乾隆柳州府志云："狫女黑齒，黥面而繡額，爲花艸蛾蝶之狀，嫁則自荷傘戒徒聚族數十人送之。在深谷者爲生丁、黑丁，與民處者曰熟、白丁。"清職貢圖謂其在明代屢次作亂云。

18. 狹（今改"侠"，看附錄改正說明36）——"狹"，玉篇："鯉也"，集韻："或作狹"。其用爲族名，見於嘉慶西隆州志，謂："狹居山巓曰寨，男蓄髮以靑布包首，頸擔烟袋出口口鋤，能作獞語。婦人衣藍，領袖裙腳則紅黑口口口口"。劉錫藩嶺表紀蠻謂西隆等屬皆有之。

19. 狚（今改"但"，看附錄改正說明20）——"狚"，廣韻："獼狚，獸名，似狼"，集韻："獼狚，亘狼也"；其用爲族名，見於廣西通志，閔叙粵述，諸匡鼎

註31：屈大均廣東新語云："狚人者，舊居文昌東北百里東狚山，其人如猿，故云狚。詩：遭我乎狚之間，註謂"狚，山名，非也"。

猺獞傳等書。雍正廣西通志云："狆人居山谷，種山禾，日暮始舂粟，無隔宿之炊，單衣不利於寒，長袴不利於走，較諸蠻最爲愚弱，懷遠縣有此種"。劉錫藩嶺表紀蠻謂卽蜑人，在陸爲狆，在水爲蜑云（參看蜑考）。

20. 獬獞（今改"僣僮"，看附錄改正說明55）——"獞"，駢雅："子獞，熊也"。獞，不見於舊字書，其義無考。其用爲族名，見於西昌縣志，謂："性馴良，以耕種爲業"云。二字音讀與猓玀相近，疑卽猓玀也。

21. 狏（今改"佯"，看附錄改正說明22）——"狏"，集韻："獸名，狢也"。其用爲族名，見於清職貢圖，西林縣狏人條云："狏人家無蓄積，以牛多爲富，居處飲食與㿗人（註32）相類，而服飾稍別。男花布裹頭，喜着半背擱自織錦帕。婦以綵帛約髮，髻插鳳釵，項飾銀圈，下垂小珠瓔珞，紅衣廣袖，外繫綠裙。俗信鬼，疾病以巫禱爲事。其族類不可考"。

以上所考21條，其字原義殆皆爲獸名（除狆、獞、獞三字，義皆無考），間有少數雖非獸名，但其字訓仍皆與獸有關，如獠訓獵，猖訓猖狂。疑或有因圖騰信仰而得名者。惜除猺以外，吾人尙未能得實地調查之材料以證實之。然其爲後人假借獸名以名之者，當亦不少也。以下考杜撰犬旁之命名。

22. 獽（今改"僚"，看附錄改正說明49）——獽之名始見於南史，王華傳附從弟琨傳云："琨，華從父子也。父懌，不辨菽麥，時以爲殷道矜之，流人無肯婚嫁，以獽婢恭心侍之，遂生琨"。按獽爲獠之別稱，集韻皓韻："西南夷謂之獠，或从犬，从人，亦作獽。一曰，土人自謂獠，獽別種。"明鄺露赤雅云："土目命其女奴曰獽婢"，蓋謂獠婢也，與杜甫所云獠奴之義相同（參看1獠考）。

23. 獠岁或獏狻、獏些（今改"麼些"，看附錄改正說明57）——獠岁通作麼些，又作麼岁、摩岁、摩梭，本作麼些，始見於唐樊綽蠻書、名類篇稱麼些蠻，謂："在施蠻外，與南詔爲婚姻家、又與越析詔爲婚姻家"。卽今日自稱爲"Nashi"者是也。雲南通省職守便覽作獠岁，四川通志有獏狻，顯邊廳鄉土志有獏些，蓋皆以

註32：清職貢圖卷9西林縣㿗人條云："㿗人卽西林土人，散處山谷。明時置上林長官司轄之，本朝康熙5年始設西林縣治。男錦巾裹頭著紅綠衣，每逢佳節，好吹笛遊玩。女挽雙髻，戴以繡帕，著花袖衣，繫綠裙。素淡食，嗜酸味。所種山田，必待雨而耕，無則竹筧引泉以溉"。

麼些音近之字加犬旁而來也。

24. 猓玀（今改"猓倮"，看附錄改正說明44）——猓玀又作力黎、蓼夥或力些，本作栗粟，始見於蠻書，名類篇稱栗粟兩姓蠻，謂："在茫部臺登城東西散居，皆烏蠻、白蠻之種族。丈夫婦人以黑繒爲衣，其長曳地"。楊愼南詔野史謂力夥卽猓玀。清職貢圖謂猓玀相傳楚莊王開滇時便有此種。峒谿纖志、滇海虞衡志、滇南雜誌等書又作猓蘇或猓傃。蘇與傃，皆粟音近之字也。

25. 仡佬（今改"仡佬"，看附錄改正說明3），仡獠（今改"仡僚"，看同上7）、獦獠（今改"僊僚"，看同上54），猞獠（今改"佶僚"，看同上28），狆狫（今改木佬，看同上11）、仡人（今改"仡人"，看同上1），仡狫（今改"仡令"，看同上2），仡獦（今改"仡儞"，看同上9），仡鼷（今改"仡傻"，看同上5），仡兜（今改"仡兜"，看同上4）仡狫（今改"仡撞"，看同上6），仡獞（今改"仡僮"，看同上8）——仡狫之名，始見於宋朱輔溪蠻叢笑。明田汝成炎徼紀聞，羅曰褧咸賓錄均謂仡狫一作仡獠。仡獠之名，陸游老學庵筆記卽記之（見下文引）。清檀萃說蠻則謂仡狫一作狉狫，本作狉獠。是"狫"卽獠也。按獠，六朝以來字書本皆作二讀：玉篇："力吊切，宵田也"；又："力道切，夷名"。廣韻平聲蕭："落蕭切，夜獵也"；上聲皓："盧皓切，西南夷名"；上聲巧："盧皓切，夷別名"。是"獠"作夷名解，其音讀本同老或狫（正字通："魯考切"）。新唐書南蠻傳下南平獠傳有葛獠（註33），蓋卽米芾及釋原道用以詈人之獦獠（註34）也。宋史西南溪洞諸蠻傳作猞獠（註35）。"葛"、"獦"、"猞"、"狉"之音讀皆近"仡"，是葛獠、獦獠、猞獠、狉獠、仡獠，乃同音異寫，卽仡狫也。羅繞典黔南職方紀略云："晉代邛，笮間有山獠，其種蔓延於今之黔、粵，諸蠻種多役屬之。遂名其役屬之蠻爲僕獠，其獠人則謂之主獠。其後主獠譌爲狉狫，僕獠譌爲木狫"。蓋六朝以來之獠，實卽宋、元至今之仡狫，亦卽土獠或土老也（參看1獠、土獠考）。由其命名之音讀上考之，固多可信，而其習俗之相同，亦多可徵。魏書獠傳及北史蠻獠傳均記獠人有"鼻飲"之

註33：傳云："戎、巂間有葛獠，居依山谷林箐踰數百里"。

註34：米芾自述淵源寄薛郎中紹彭詩有云："懷素獦獠小解事"。釋道原傳燈錄有云："五祖謂六祖、汝廣南獦獠，有甚佛性"？

註35：傳云："寶元二年，辰州洁獠三千餘人款附"。

俗（註36），赤雅稱之爲鼻夷，謂："與之酒，鼻飲輒盡"。而溪蠻叢笑亦記犵狫以"鼻飲"，謂："犵狫飲不以口，而以鼻，名曰鼻飲，"又博物志記獠俗謂："婦人妊娠七月而產，臨水生兒，便置水中，浮則取養之、沉則棄之"。而清職貢圖記土獠亦謂："生子置水中，浮則養之"。又桂海虞衡志及嶺外代答均記獠有"鑿齒"之俗。元周致中異域志亦記獠有"打牙"者，謂打牙獞獠。元李京雲南志略記土獠男子及十四五，則左右"擊去兩齒"，然後婚娶。而"打牙"，固各家所記打牙犵狫之俗也。至於狏狫，亦卽犵狫，炎徼紀聞卽謂其俗與犵狫略同。赤雅、說蠻及廣西通志等書又有仡人。雍正廣西通志云："仡，來自黔中，棺而不瘞，置岩穴間，高者絕地千尺，父母死則子婦各折二齒投棺中以爲訣，名打牙仡。又剪頭仡，男女髮生時時剪之，人死則積薪而焚，擊鼓跳躍，謂化去不死"。是仡人卽仡狫也。此外又有仡狑、狫獠、仡獠、仡兜諸名。宋陸游老學庵筆記云："辰、沅、靖州蠻，有仡狑、有仡獠、有仡獞、有仡獠。"清李宗昉黔記云："花仡狫又名仡兜苗；水仡狫亦名仡兜苗"。蓋皆仡狫之同族而異稱也。至黔苗圖說及黔記所記仡獞，則爲非仡非獞之族類。又黔南職方紀略記仡獞，謂："其屋宇去地數尺，架以巨木上覆杉葉如羊柵，謂之，"羊樓"。其人悍而善鬥"。按"羊樓"乃各家所記犵狫之俗，是仡獞實爲仡○之異稱也。

26. 狆（今改"仲"，看附錄改正說明13）——狆，本作"仲"，明楊愼南詔野史、田汝成炎徼紀聞、羅曰褧咸賓錄均記之。清代名家記載多謂五代時楚王馬殷或馬希範（殷子）自邕管遷來，清職貢圖云："補籠苗（按補籠非苗乃狆家之一種）五代時楚王馬殷率邕管、柳州兵討兩江溪口至黔留戍，其後遂流爲夷，散處於貴陽、安順、南籠、平越、都匀等處。宋時爲普里、于矢等部，元、明以後各置土司分轄。"又云："狆家苗亦五代戍兵以後，貴陽、安順、南籠、平越、都匀等五郡皆有之，其部落沿革均與補籠苗同，蓋別以氏族稱之者"。羅繞典黔南職方紀略云："五代時楚王馬希範遣兵戍南寧，因命之世守其地，其部衆欲自異於諸蠻，因以其主帥之姓爲號，遂號爲仲家，又譌爲狆家"。在滇者又稱狆人，清曹樹翹滇南雜志云："狆人在黔者謂之狆家子，曲靖、昭通一帶毗連黔疆者皆有之，其實卽狆家之苗裔也"。

27. 狪（今改"倮"，看附錄改正說明42）——狪，字彙補作"猓"謂係西南苗

註36：魏書卷101獠傳及北史卷95蠻獠傳並云："其口嚼食，並鼻飲"。

人名，明季都司傅元勲攻白蕩毛台，斬獲大頭目阿獨猺苗級二十一。是今之傜子或明時阿獨猺苗之後也。傜、猺形近而譌。惟據羅繞典謂係漢末牂牁李氏之後。黔南職方紀略云："漢末大姓有李氏者，居牂牁，其部族號季子，其後譌爲夷子又譌爲蟻子，又譌爲傜子"。則"傜"字乃由羿加犬旁而來，與字彙補之說異，未知孰是也。

28. 喇猴或獠鷄（今改"喇侯"，看附錄改正說明45）——猴，集韻："東北夷名"，其爲西南夷名，亦作"鷄"或"記"。南詔野史云："喇鷄亦名喇記"。清職貢圖作"獠鷄"，二字不見於通行字書，蓋由"剌鷄"二字加犬旁而來也。職貢圖謂其人係交州苗裔，在安南境內，先隸交酋管轄。因與滇省接壤，國初置開化府，多居府屬逢春里之極邊。性頑悍嗜酒。善用火器，凡交地守關守廠，以爲兵卒。僻處山箐者，黑面環眼，短衣短袴。或捕蛇鼠，則生啖之。婦人短衣長裙，善弩，亦能射獵"。道光開化府志云："喇猴，性愚頑，居深山，火耨刀耕。男子寬博大袖，垂髻於腦後。女子以五色毛線爲衣，上作井口，自頭罩下。婚無媒妁，喪用火化。喜食百蟲。此種多從交趾流入。

29. 狫（今改"仫"，看附錄改正說明14）——狫，字彙補稱謂爲廣西苗種，亦作水，稱水家苗。清李宗昉黔記云："水家苗在荔波縣，自雍正十年由廣西撥隸黔之都匀府屬。男子好漁獵，婦人勤紡織，有水家布之名，桶裙短衣，四圍俱以花布綴之。每歲首男女成羣，連袂歌舞，相歡者遂爲婚姻"（參看下文30條）

30. 狫（今改"仫"，看附錄改正說明15）——狫，明鄺露赤雅、清檀萃說蠻均謂係獠類。乾隆慶遠府志則謂狫卽水苗。蓋狫，狫形近而誤也。明、清以來，各家記載如赤雅、粵西叢載、說蠻、猺獞傳、苗俗記、廣西通志、嶺表紀蠻等書，均記狫人而不記仫人；而貴州通志、清職貢圖、黔苗圖說、黔記黔南職方紀略、粵述等書，則均記狫人或狫家苗，而不記仫人。頗疑二者或原係一類，則慶遠府志所云狫卽水苗之說，似屬可信也。

31. 狫（今改"沙"，看附錄改正說明32）——狫，本多作"沙"，南詔野史謂卽越析夷，又名蒙嶲，雍正廣西通志謂爲狫類，清職貢圖則謂係安南土酋沙氏之裔，乾隆彌勒州志又謂種家亦作仲家、卽沙人也。近人劉錫藩嶺表記蠻謂狫族亦獞類也。惟由其親死不食祭肉等俗觀之，其人當類仲家，則彌勒州志之說，似頗可信也。

32. 㺄（今改"怒"，看附錄改正說明43）——㺄，本多作"怒"。南詔野史謂怒人居永昌、怒江內外。清職貢圖謂以怒江甸得名。按怒人自稱"Anu"或"Anung"或"Nung"，其音均與"怒"相近。疑卽其自稱之名也。滇南雜誌云："麗江有之。其在鶴慶及維西邊外，過怒江十餘日有野夷，名㺄子，自古不通中國，於本朝雍正八年相率到維西"。惟南詔野史已謂其居永昌怒江內外，則在明代當已通中國矣。

33. 㺜（今改俅，看附錄改正說明34）——㺜，亦作"猫"，南詔野史"謂㺜人在麗江府鶴慶州大雪山外。男女披髮，樹葉爲衣。耳穿七孔，墜以木環。與怒人接壤，畏怒人，不敢越界"。今其人多在㺜江（或名猫江）流域，卽恩梅開江上游，故多謂其因㺜江或猫江得名。然其自稱爲"Dulong"，而恩梅開江上游又有毒龍河之稱，則又似河名因其族自稱之名而來矣。

34. 㺄（今改"擺"，看附錄改正說明58）——㺄，本多作"擺"，峒谿纖志作㺄，謂係僰人後。按僰人乃說文所謂㺄爲蠻夷。元周致中異域志謂："其國則中慶、楚威、大理、永昌等府是也，今滇南者皆是焉。"蓋卽白人，元李京雲南志略已考證之。今其人自稱白子，麼些稱之爲那馬，漢人稱之爲民家子。其非擺夷，明劉文徵已言之。滇志云："白人故白國之支流也。舊爲'僰'爲'白'，遂稱其一類，實不相通"。李元陽雲南通志始有僰夷之名，並云："卽今之所謂百夷也。'僰'、'百'聲相近，蓋音訛也。有大小僰夷、蒲人、阿昌、繹人、古剌、哈喇、緬人、結梦、哈杜、怒人等名，皆僰類也"，其百夷之名、蓋本於錢古訓百夷傳。錢氏云："百夷在雲南西南數千里，其地方萬里，景東在其東，西天、古勅在其西，八百媳婦在其南，吐番在其北，東南則車里，西南則緬國，東北則哀牢，西北則西番、回紇，俗有大百夷、小百夷、漂人、古剌、哈剌、緬人、結些、哈杜、㑩人、蒲蠻、阿昌等名，故曰百夷"。是"百夷"之"百"，乃多數之義，與僰本無關。李元陽音訛之說非是。自楊愼南詔野史謂："僰人一名百夷，又名擺夷"，於是僰人或僰夷之名，遂與擺夷相混，淵博如檀萃，亦仍其誤。滇海虞衡志云："僰夷一名擺夷，蓋聲近而譌也。"實則擺夷乃今自稱爲"Tai"，緬人稱爲"Shan"者是也。

35. 㺄狐（今改"佧佤"，看附錄改正說明17），㺄喇（今改"佧喇"，看附錄改正說明18）與阿㺄（今改"阿佧"，看附錄改正說明19）——㺄狐本多作卡瓦，南詔

野史云："多在順寧、永昌二郡辣蒜江外，貌醜性惡，獵人以祭，商賈出騰越州入木邦者，必經其地，呼爲卡利瓦。有生熟二種，生者刼掠，熟者保路"。民國24至25年間，作者曾至其地，知卽擺夷所稱爲"Wa"者。其獵人以祭之俗，固至今猶存也。狚喇本作卡喇，亦作哈喇、戛喇，南詔野史分列三條，實爲同一族類，卽今擺夷稱爲"La"者是也。阿狚本作阿卡，亦作阿戛，伯麟圖說謂："其性頑貌醜，男女服青藍，以紅籐繫腰，耕餘獵、較罕入城市，普洱府屬有之"。

以上所考14條，其字原義殆皆不可考，大都爲其族名音近之字加上犬旁者。蓋卽余所謂杜撰犬旁字以名之者也。

五、犬旁兼用牛旁字命名考

1. 狪獙或狪鷄（今並改"佷儠"，看附錄改正說明24及62）——"狪"，玉篇："獷狪"。"獙"，不見於通行字書，其義無考。其用爲族名，本亦作狪鷄，見於明楊愼南詔野史："狪鷄，亦作狪獙，形醜惡，婦女尤甚，椎髻插羽，佩刀負弩，獵食猿狙。見人有蓄思盜，先用鷄骨卜，吉則往，否則止"。"狪"，集韻："牛名"。其用爲族名，見於明、清各家記載，大都作狪鷄。據乾隆開化府志所記，又有黑狪鷄、白狪鷄之別。

2. 僕喇或犥喇（今並改"撲喇"，看附錄改正說明53及63）——"僕"，廣韻："僕鉛，南極之夷。僕喇之名，見於南詔野史，謂："其男插鷄毛，女裹首巾，皆披羊皮，衣不浣濯，婚配先野合。採蒙肚花，欲人醉死則醉採，欲人狂死則狂採以毒人。又一種在王弄山者爲馬喇"。"犥"，玉篇："特牛"，廣韻："牛未虔勢者"。犥喇之名，見於滇志，或又作犥臘（清職貢圖、滇海虞衡志、滇南雜志等書）。據開化廣西府志所記，又有白犥喇、花犥喇之別。

六、犬旁兼用馬旁字命名考

獙或驃（今改"縹"，看附錄改正說明48及61）——"獙"，不見於古今通行字

書，南詔野史始作獟人，錢古訓百夷傳本作漂人。"驃"，說文："黃馬發白色"。其用爲族名，見於清職貢圖、滇海虞衡志等書。明、清各家記載本多作縹人，清職貢圖謂"卽驃人，在永昌府西南徼外，古朱波之裔，其先爲金齒驃國"。按驃國之名，始見於唐樊綽蠻書（卷十），謂："驃國在蠻永昌城南七十五日程，閣羅鳳所通也。……俗尚廉耻，人性知善，少言，重佛法，……男子多衣白氎，婦人當頂爲高髻，以金銀眞珠爲飾，著青婆羅裙，又披羅段，行必持扇，貴家婦女皆三人、五人在傍持扇。"由其所記地望及習俗考之，似卽緬甸古國名 Pyu之漢文釋名也。

七、羊旁字命名考

羯（今改"偈"，看附錄改正說明64）——"羯"，說文："羊羖犗也"，古今韻會："上黨、武鄉羯室，晉匈奴別部人居之，後因號爲羯"。其用爲西南族名，始於明。楊愼南詔野史，作羯婁子，謂："自孟養流入，環眼鳥喙，散髮纏縢，耳帶大環，首插鷄羽、無衣袴，腹下以麻布一幅圍之，負弩佩刀，喊聲如犬。又有結婁，耳帶象牙大環，紅布圍頭，衣半身衫，袒右臂，亦其類也"。明、清各家多將羯些子與結些分條記之，實卽爲同一族類。近人丁文江氏亦謂"結些卽羯些"也（註37）。

民國29年（1940）8月12日，寫成於昆明龍泉鎭寶台山。

八、附　錄

㈠國民政府（29年9月18日令）行政院渝文字第855號訓令

案查關於邊疆同胞，應以地域分稱爲某地人，禁止沿用苗、夷、蠻、猺、猓、獞等稱謂；其西南邊地有少數民族，若專爲歷史及科學研究便利，應將原有名詞一律予以改訂，以期泯除界限，團結整個中華民族；業於二十八年八月間以渝字470號訓令通飭遵照在案。玆經中央社會部、教育部、中央研究院會同詳細研究，擬送"改正西南少數民族命名表"專爲學術上研究應用。至一般普通文告、著作品、宣傳品等，仍應概以其生長所在地稱之。合行抄發改正命名表，令仰遵照，並轉飭所屬一體遵照。此令。

註37：見雙文叢刊序。

㈡改正西南少數民族命名表

改　正　凡　例

1. 本表依據29年1月18日中央社會部會同教育部及中央研究院開會商討之決議案訂定之；其決議要點三項如下：

   ㈠關於少數民族之一般稱謂，應依照28年8月國民政府渝字第470號訓令，概以其生長所在地人稱呼之。

   ㈡爲學術上研究便利起見，擬請中央秘書處轉函中央研究院依據下列原則詳訂改正西南少數民族命名表，原則如下：

   (1)凡屬蟲獸鳥偏旁之命名，一律去蟲獸鳥偏旁，改從人旁。

   (2)凡不適用於(1)項原則者，則改用同音假借字，如蜒、蠻、狆、獞等是。

   ㈢少數民族稱謂，其根據生活習慣而加之不良形容詞，如"猪屎犵狫""狗頭猺"之"猪屎"、"狗頭"等，應概予廢止。

2. 凡依原則(1)改從人旁者，如遇其命名雖有作蟲獸偏旁字，但各家記載甚少用之，而多去其偏旁（如狆人之"狆"通作"沙"，㺄人之"㺄"通作"怒"等），或別作非蟲獸偏旁之同音字（如玀夷之"玀"亦作"擺"，或黦人之"黦"亦作"縹"等）者，得斟酌採用之。

3. 凡依原則(2)改用同音假借字者，以與原命名有聯念關係者儘先採用之（如"獞"改"撞"，"狆"改"令"，"獞"改"兪"等），其次始採及無聯念關係之同音假借字（如"雞"改"機"，"狆"改"傷"，"獞"改"保"等）。

4. 本表所收蟲獸偏旁命名係參考下列各書搜採而來：

   （甲）官書：明、清兩代一統志，清職貢圖，四川、雲南、貴州、湖南、廣西、廣東等省通志及所屬各府、廳、州、縣方志。

   （乙）私家撰述：晉常璩華陽國志、唐樊綽蠻書、宋范成大桂海虞衡志、朱輔溪蠻叢笑、陸游老學庵筆記、周去非嶺外代答，元周致中異域志、明田汝成炎徼紀聞、羅日褧咸賓錄、楊愼南詔野史、劉文徵滇志、范守己九夷考、

朱孟震西南夷風土記、鄭露赤雅、清顧炎武天下郡國利病書、陸次雲峒谿纖志、毛奇齡蠻司合志、檀萃說蠻、嚴如煜苗防備覽、方咸亭苗俗紀聞、貝青喬苗俗記、龔柴苗民考、諸匡鼎猺僮傳、彭遵泗蜀故、魏祝亭蜀九種夷記、檀萃滇海虞衡志、師範滇繫、無名氏雲南通省職守備覽、曹樹翹滇南雜誌、余慶遠維西見聞錄、田雯黔書、陳浩黔苗圖說、李宗昉黔記、羅繞典黔南職方紀略、陳鼎黔遊記、舒位黔苗竹枝詞、汪森粵西叢載、陸祚蕃粵西偶記、沈日霖粵西瑣記、屈大均廣東新語、閔敍粵述、吳震方嶺南雜記、鄧淳嶺南叢述及近人董一道古滇土人圖志、翁之藏西康之實況、劉錫藩嶺表記蠻、吳彥文廣西之特種教育及雲南省立昆華民衆教育館所編之雲南邊地問題研究等書。

（丙）期刊：中央研究院歷史語言研究所集刊、中山大學語言歷史學研究所週刊及東方雜誌、地學雜誌、地理學報、新亞細亞、邊事研究、川邊季刊、西南邊疆等各有關論文。

5. 本表所收包括同族異名，因地殊號之諸蟲獸偏旁命名；其考訂因不屬本表範圍，別詳中央研究院歷史語言研究所芮逸夫君西南少數民族蟲獸偏旁命名考略一文。

6. 本表所收之諸蟲獸偏旁命名，以記載較多，而其分佈地域今尚可考者爲主，間亦採及今已少見者，如犵狫、犵狫、犵狫、猞獠、獦獠、狙人、狶人、狶人、玃人等；但其偶見於記載而分佈地域今又不可考者，如漢東方朔神異經有獏獌、晉常璩華陽國志有蠻夷、近人所記有獠子、狶子、海人、狒人等；以及別有普遍通行之用字者，如“苗”，宋朱輔溪蠻叢笑作“猫”；畲，近人林傳甲大中華福建省地理志作“狪”之類；概未收入。

7. 本表共收蟲獸偏旁命名字六十有六，一一分條予以改正；每條一律首列原命名、次改正、次說明，並間加附註。

8. 原命名後一律附記該族分佈地域，不及一一註明出處，其根據約分三類如下：

甲、實地調查——如雲南西部、南部，貴州中部，湖南西部，大部份據歷史語言研究所凌純聲、陶雲逵、芮逸夫諸君之實地調查。

乙、統計書刊——如廣西省，大部份據民國26年第2回內政年鑑廣西省民政警

政禮俗概況中之特種民族統計表。

丙、新舊記載——其他各省區，則據各家記載，先採新記載，如近出雜誌、報告等；其無新記載者，則多採自舊記載及方志。

9. 各條所記分佈地域，包括川、康、湘、黔、滇、粵、桂七省；因祇有少數出於實地調查，大多數根據各家記載，未必完全可靠。又記載中雖有其人，實際上往往有不易調查者；則因同化關係，其人已不自承爲某族也。如貴州安順東鄉有仡佬灣，本仡佬所居，今其地已改灣子寨，其居民有不自承爲仡佬者。

10. 改正命名一律附註國音字母拼音；首第一式，卽注音符號；次第二式，卽國語羅馬字；均據民國21年教育部公佈之國音常用字彙。

11. 說明首詳原用蟲獸偏旁字之音讀，次改正字之構造及音讀；凡舊有之字，均據古今通行字書，或參考專著及實際調查所知，一一考定；其不見於通行字書者，則說明其構造、規定其音讀。

12. 本表改正命名用字，十之七八見於古今通行字書；其因不得已而創製之新字有僾、伬、伢、佒、侏、佧、侷、俽、傑、僙、傷、僙、僇共十四字（在表中均用＊號記之），十九與原命名有聯念關係，其音讀亦可由其主聲之偏旁得之。

改正說明

（依命名首字筆畫寡多排列，筆畫相同者，更依點、橫、直、撇、曲五筆次序排列。）

1. 仡人：廣西之三江、宜北、天峨、樂業、西隆、西林、鎭邊、敬德、上思、思樂等縣屬有之。

改正：仡人（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄖㄣˊ，Ger-ren）。

說明：仡，篇海："音紇"，廣韻、韻會、正韻並："下沒切"；但今通讀如紇縴之紇；今改其字從人，紇省聲，作仡。仡，廣韻、韻會、正韻並："魚乞切"，又集韻、正韻並："五忽切"；今改定其音讀爲（ㄍㄜˊ，ger）。

2. 仡玲：湖南之舊辰、沅、靖屬有之，今已少見記載。

改正：仡令（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄌㄧㄥˊ，Ger-ling）。

說明：仡改作仡，說見1。玲，廣韻、集韻並："郎丁切"音靈；如改其字從人

作伶，易誤爲優伶之伶，今卽去其人旁作令。令，集韻、正韻並："力正切，音零，今卽定其音讀爲（ㄌㄧㄥˊ，ling）。

3. 犵狫（或作犵狫苗，誤；犵亦作猺）：貴州之修文、安順、織金、郎岱、關嶺、普安、普定、清鎭、平壩、大定、黔西、餘慶、鎭遠、遵義、桐梓及湖南之瀘溪、乾城等縣屬有之。

改正：仡佬（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄌㄠˇ，Ger-lao）。

說明：犵改作仡，說見1，狫，正字通："魯考切"；今改其字從人，老聲，作佬。佬，玉篇："力彫切，音遼"；今改其音讀爲（ㄌㄠˇ，lao）。

附註：凡花犵狫、紅犵狫、青犵狫、水犵狫、土犵狫、鍋圈犵狫、披袍犵狫、剪髮（或作剪頭）犵狫、打牙犵狫、猪屎犵狫、打鐵犵狫、豎眼犵狫等之"犵狫"，概作"仡佬"；其鍋圈、披袍、剪髮或剪頭、打牙、猪屎、打鐵、豎眼等形容詞概予廢止。

4. 犵兜（或作犵兜苗，誤）：貴州之施秉、黃平、修文、鐵山、鎭遠等縣屬有之。

改正：仡兜（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄉㄡ，Ger-dou）。

說明：犵改作仡，說見1。

5. 犵僂：湖南之舊辰、沅、靖州屬有之，今已少見記載。

改正：仡僂（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄌㄡˊ，Ger-lou）。

說明：犵改作仡，說見1。僂，廣韻："力朱切"，集韻："龍珠切"，並音慺；今改其字從人，慺省聲，作僂。僂，集韻、韻會並："隴主切，音縷"，今改從國音讀爲（ㄌㄡˊ，lou）。

6. 犵獞（或作犵獞苗，誤）：貴州之荔波縣屬有之。

改正：仡撞（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄓㄨㄤˋ，Ger-juanq）。

說明：犵改作仡，說見1。獞，集韻："徒東切，音童"，但今通讀如撞；如改其字從人，作僮，音既不同，尤易誤爲僮僕之僮；今改用其同音字作撞。撞，集韻、韻會並："仗降切"；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄓㄨㄤˋ，juanq）。

7. 犵獠：湖南之舊辰、沅、靖州屬有之，今已少見記載。

改正：仡僚（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄌㄠˇ，Ger-lau）。

說明：犵改作仡，說見1。獠，說文：“力照切”，玉篇：“力道切，夷名”，廣韻：“盧皓切，西南夷名”。集韻：“魯皓切，西南夷謂之獠，或作僚獠”。今改其字從人，獠聲，作僚，集韻本有西南夷謂之獠或作“僚”之說。今採用之，並定其音讀爲（ㄌㄠˊ，lau）。

8. 犵獞：貴州之修文、安順、大定等縣屬有之。

改正：仡僮（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄉㄤ，Ger-dang）。

說明：犵改作仡，說見1。獞，玉篇：“都郎切，音當”：今改其字從人：當聲，作僮。僮，廣韻、集韻並：“都郎切，音當”：今卽定其音讀爲（ㄉㄤ，dang）。

9. 犵獫（或作“犵獫”。誤）：湖南之舊辰、沅、靖州屬有之，今已少見記載。

改正：＊仡儉（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄌㄢˇ，Ger-laan）。

說明：犵改作仡，說見1。獫，正字通：“魯感切，音覽”：今改其字從人，覽聲，作儉。儉，不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄌㄢˇ，Laan）。

10. 狊獠：廣東之東莞、惠陽一帶山中有之。

改正：＊伋僚（ㄔㄚ—ㄌㄠ，cha-lau）。

說明：狊，不見於舊字書，中華大字典：“讀若叉”；今改其字從人，叉聲，作伋。伋，不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄔㄚ，Cha）。獠改作僚，說見7。

11. 狇狫（或作狇狫苗，誤）：貴州之貴定、平越、黃平、甕安、都匀、麻江、鑪山、黔西等縣屬有之。

改正：木佬（ㄇㄨˋ—ㄌㄠˇ，Muq-lao）。

說明：狇，不見於舊字書，中華大字典、辭海並直音木“讀如木”；如改其字從人旁則爲休，音讀迥異；今卽去其亻旁作木，各家記載本亦有作木者。集韻、韻會、正韻並：“莫卜切”；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄇㄨˋ，Muq）。狫改作佬，說見3。

12. 犴人：廣西之馬平、柳城、賓陽、武宣等縣屬有之。

改正：＊伢人（ㄧㄚ—ㄖㄣˊ，Ya-ren）。

說明：犴，廣韻、集韻並："吾駕切，音迓"，又集韻："牛加切，音牙"；今改其字從人，牙聲，作伢。伢，不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄧㄚ，Ya）。

13. 狪人、狪家、狪家子（或作狪苗、狪家苗，誤）：貴州之貴陽、長寨、定番、大塘、龍里、貴定、修文、安順、郎岱、紫雲、關嶺、鎮甯、普定、安平、清鎮、大定、平遠、黔西、威甯、水城、興義、貞豐、安南、普安、册亨、平越、甕安、餘慶、都匀、獨山、麻紅，廣西之西隆及雲南之昭通、曲靖等縣屬有之。

改正：仲人、仲家（ㄓㄨㄥˋ—ㄖㄣˊ，Jonq-ren；ㄓㄨㄥˋ—ㄐㄧㄚ，Jonq-jia）。

說明：狪，不見於明以前字書，字彙補亦不詳其音讀，康熙字典收入補遺，辭源："與忡同"，中華大字典、辭海並直音："讀如仲"；今改其字從人，中聲，作仲，各家記載本亦有作仲者。仲，集韻、韻會、正韻並："直衆切"，今卽定其音讀爲（ㄓㄨㄥˋ，jonq）。

附註：凡青狪家、黑狪家、白狪家、補籠狪家、卡尤狪家、清江狪家等之"狪"，概作"仲"；其補籠，卡尤等形容詞，概予廢止。

14. 狘人、狘家（或作狘家苗，誤）：貴州之都江、獨山、荔波、黎平等縣屬有之。

改正：＊倄人、＊倄家（ㄕㄨㄟˇ—ㄖㄣˊ，Shoei-ren；ㄕㄨㄟˇ—ㄐㄧㄚ，Shoei-jia）

說明：狘不見於明以前字書，字彙補亦不詳其音讀，康熙字典收入補遺；今改其字從人，水聲，作倄。倄，不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄕㄨㄟˇ，Shoei）。

15. 狉人（清檀萃說蠻小方壺齋輿地叢鈔本、及中外地輿圖說集成本並作"狉疑係狘之誤；證以昭代叢書本及各家記載均作"狘"可知。中華大字典收狉，讀若米，並引說蠻；蓋據小方及圖說本而誤收也）：廣西之柳城、南丹、及貴州之荔波等縣屬有之。

改正：＊倄人（ㄅㄧㄥ—ㄖㄣˊ，Bing-ren）。

說明：狉，不見於舊字書，辭源、中華大字典、辭海：並直音："讀如氷，變也"；今改其字從人，氷聲，作倄。倄，不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄅㄧㄥ，Bing）。

16. 猞猁：雲南之麗江、鶴慶、維西、思樂等縣屬有之。

改正：估倧（ㄍㄨ—ㄗㄨㄥ，Gu-tzong）。

說明：猞，不見於舊字書，辭源、中華大字典、辭海並直音："讀如古"：今改其字從人，古聲，作估。估，廣韻："公戶切"，集韻："果五切，正韻："公土切"，並音古；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄍㄨ，Gu）。猁，玉篇："子宋切；今改其字從人，宗聲，作倧。倧，廣韻："作冬切，音宗"；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄗㄨㄥ， tzong）。

附註：凡小猞猁、野猞猁之"猞猁"，概作"估倧"；其形容詞野，則予廢止。

17. 狓狘：雲南之瀾滄、雙江等縣西境及滇、緬南段未定界一帶有之。

改正：＊伽佤（ㄎㄚ—ㄨㄚ，Ka-wah）。

說明：狓狘二字均不見於古今通行字書，今改狓從人，卡聲，作伽。改狘從人，瓦聲，作佤。伽佤二字亦均不見於古今通行字書，今定伽之音讀爲（ㄎㄚ，Ka），佤之音讀爲（ㄨㄚ，wah）。

18. 狓喇（亦作哈喇、戛喇）：雲南之瀾滄、雙江、鎭康等縣屬西境及滇、緬南段未定界一帶有之。

改正：＊伽喇（ㄎㄚ—ㄌㄚ，Kah-Lah）。

說明：狓改作伽，說見17。

19. 阿狓：雲南之瀾滄、南嶠、佛海、車里、鎭越等縣屬有之。

改正：＊阿伽（ㄚˋ—ㄎㄚ，Ah-Kah）。

說明：狓改作伽說見17。

20. 狙人：廣西之三江縣屬有之。

改正：但人（ㄉㄢˋ—ㄖㄣˊ，Dann-ren）。

說明：狙，廣韻、集韻、韻會："得安切"，正韻："得爛切"，並音旦；今改其字從人，旦聲，作旦。但，韻會："蕩旱切"，正韻："徒亶切"，並音誕；今定其音讀爲（ㄉㄢˋ，Dann）。

21. 狙人（或作狚人）：明鄺露赤雅記之，當在廣西境內，淸屈大均廣東新語記狚人一作狙人，在廣東海南島之文昌縣屬，今已少見記載。

改正：㹠人（ㄐㄩ—ㄖㄣˊ，Ju-ren）。

說明：狙，說文：“親去切”，集韻：“莊助切，音詛”；又集韻、正韻並：“子余切，音苴”，今改其字從人，且聲，作㹠。㹠，廣韻：“七余切”，集韻：“千余切”，並音疽；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄐㄩ，Jiu）。

22. 狭人：廣西之西林縣屬有之。

改正：㺍人（ㄧㄤ—ㄖㄣˊ，Iang-ren）。

說明：狭，集韻：“於食切，音央”；今改其字從人，央聲，作㺍。㺍，廣韻：“一良切”，集韻、韻會、正韻並：“倚兩切，音央”，今卽定其音讀爲（ㄧㄤ，Iang）。

23. 狑人（或作狑家苗，誤）：廣西之桂平、永福、馬平、雒容、三江、宜山、天河、思恩、平樂、及貴州之荔波等縣屬有之。

改正：令人（ㄌㄧㄥˊ—ㄖㄣˊ，Ling-ren）。

說明：狑改作令說見2。

24. 狗鷄（狗亦作犬，互見62，鷄，鷄亦作幾）：雲南之文山、開遠、建水、石屏、蒙自、峨山、河西、通海等縣屬有之。

改正：㹠僟（ㄇㄨˇ—ㄐㄧ，Muu-Ji）。

說明：狗，廣韻、集韻並：“莫厚切，音母”，今改其字從人，母聲，作㹠。㹠，集韻：“侮，古作㹠”；今改定其音讀爲（ㄇㄨˇ，Muu）。鷄，鳥類，本亦作幾，今改其字從人，幾聲，作僟。僟，集韻：“渠希切”；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄐㄧ，Ji）。

附註：凡黑狗鷄、白狗鷄之“狗鷄”，概作“㹠僟”。

25. 狆人（狆或作狆，正字通謂狆爲狆字之譌）：清陸次雲峒谿纖志謂滇、黔、粵、蜀間有之，今已少見記載。

改正：伉人（ㄎㄤ—ㄖㄣˊ，Karng-ren）。

說明：狆，篇海：“戶浪切”，海語：“音龐”；如改作伉，易誤讀爲充，今改其字從人，亢聲，作伉。伉，集韻、韻會：“口浪切”並音康；今改定其音讀爲（ㄎㄤˊ，Karng）。

26. 狆人：貴州之荔波縣屬有之。

改正：傷人（ㄧㄤˊㄖㄣˊ，Yang-ren）。

說明：狆，正字通：“移長切，音楊”；今改其字從人，昜聲（羊爲獸類，故改之），作傷。傷，廣韻：“他朗切”；今改定其音讀爲（ㄧㄤˊ，Yang）。

27. 狆獚（或作狆獚苗，誤：獚，或作獷）：貴州之定番、都匀、石阡、施秉、鳳泉、黎平、龍里、餘慶、黃平等縣屬有之。

改正：傷僥（ㄧㄤˊㄏㄨㄤˊ，Yang-huang）。

說明：狆改作傷，說見上條。獚，廣韻、集韻並：“胡光切，音黃”；今改其字從人，黃聲，作僥。僥，廣韻：“古黃切”，集韻、正韻：“姑黃切”，並音光；今改定其音讀爲（ㄏㄨㄤˊ，hwang）。

28. 猞獠：湖南之舊辰州府屬有之，今已不見記載。

改正：佶僚（ㄐㄧˊㄌㄠˊ，Jiq-lau）。

說明：猞，廣韻：“居質切”，集韻：“徼質切”，並音吉；今改其字從人，吉聲，作佶。佶，廣韻：“巨乙切”，韻會：“極乙切”，並音吉；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄐㄧˊ，Jiq）。獠，改作僚，說見7。

29. 狪人（或作狪家苗，誤）：貴州之荔波及廣西之三江等縣屬有之。

改正：侗人（ㄉㄨㄥˋㄖㄣˊ，Donq-ren）。

說明：狪，集韻：“徒東切，音同”；今改其字從人，同聲，作侗。侗，廣韻·正韻並：“徒紅切，音同”；今改定其音讀爲（ㄉㄨㄥˋ Donq）。

30. 狢獞：雲南、西康交界各縣屬有之。

改正：佫兪（ㄏㄜˊㄩˊ，Her-Yu）。

說明：狢，集韻、類篇並；“曷各切，音涸”；今改其字從人，各聲，作佫。佫，廣韻：“曷各切，音鶴”；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄏㄜˊ，her）。獞，篇海：“同猺”；猺，玉篇：“與魚切”，集韻：“羊諸切”，並音余；如改其字從人旁，則爲偷，音旣迥異，義尤乖戾，今卽去其人旁作兪。兪，集韻、韻會：“容朱切”，正韻：“雲俱切”，並音臾；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄩˊ，Yu）。

31. 狢獾：西康之鹽源縣屬有之。

改正：＊侯係（ㄏㄜˊ—ㄌㄨˋ，Her-Luq）。

說明：狢改作侯，說見上條。獾，不見於古今通行字書，今改其字從人，录聲（鹿爲獸類，故改之），作係。係，亦不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄌㄨˋ，Luq）。

32. 狫人：廣西之西隆、西林及雲南之富川、廣南、文山、盧西、彌勒等縣屬有之。

改正：沙人（ㄕㄚ—ㄖㄣˊ，Sha-ren）。

說明：狫，不見於舊字書，辭源、中華大字典、辭海並直音："讀如沙"：各家記載本多作沙，今卽採用之。沙，集韻、韻會、正韻："師加切"，並音紗；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄕㄚ，Sha）。

附註：凡黑狫人、白狫人之"狫"，概作"沙"。

33. 狼人：廣西之南丹、百壽、雒容、羅城、柳城、忻城、遷江、凌雲、平南、貴縣、岑溪、左縣、養利、同正、憑祥、陸川、興業及廣東之羅定、雲浮、鬱南等縣屬有之。

改正：俍人（ㄌㄤˊ—ㄖㄣˊ，Lang-ren）。

說明：狼，說文："魯當切"，集韻、韻會：盧當切，正韻："魯堂切"，並音郎；今改其字從人，良聲，作俍。俍，廣韻："盧黨切，音郎"，集韻："郎宕切，音浪"；今卽定卽定其音讀爲（ㄌㄤˊ，Lang）。

34. 狩人、狩子、狩夷、猫子：雲南之貢山設治局屬有之。

改正：侸人（ㄑㄧㄡˊ—ㄖㄣˊ，Chyou-ren）。

說明：狩猫二字均不見於舊字書，辭源、中華大字典、辭海均收侸，並直音，"讀如求"，今改其字從人，求聲，作侸。侸，集韻、韻會、正韻："渠尤切"，並音求；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄑㄧㄡˊ，Chyou）。

35. 狸人：廣西之蒼梧、鬱林、橫縣及廣東之合浦、陽江等縣屬有之。

改正：俚人（ㄌㄧˇ—ㄖㄣˊ，Li-ren）。

說明：狸，廣韻："里之切"，集韻："陵之切"，並音離；今改其字從人，里

聲，作俚。俚，廣韻："良士切"，集韻、韻會："兩耳切"，正韻："良以切"，並音俚；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄌㄧˊ，Li）。

36. 狸人：廣西之西隆縣屬有之。

改正：倓人（ㄌㄞˊ—ㄖㄣˊ，Lai-ren）。

說明：狸，廣韻："落哀切"，集韻："郎才切"，並音來；今改其字從人，來聲，作倓。倓，集韻："同徠"；玉篇："古文來字"；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄌㄞˊ，Lai）。

37. 猓武：雲南之大理、楚雄、姚安、保山、景東等縣屬有之。

改正：羅婺（ㄌㄨㄛˊ—ㄨˋ，Luo-wuh）。

說明：猓武，各家記載通作"羅婺"，故採用之。

38. 猓黑、玀黑：雲南之順甯、鎭康、緬寧、雙江、瀾滄、南嶠、佛海、六順等縣屬有之。

改正：倮黑（ㄌㄨㄛˊ—ㄏㄜˋ，Luo-heh）。

說明：猓。廣韻、集韻並："五火切"，本音果，但今通讀如羅；今改其字從人，果聲，作倮。倮，集韻："魯果切"，今卽定其音讀爲（ㄌㄨㄛˊ，Luo）。

附註：凡大猓黑、小猓黑之"猓"，概作"倮"。

39. 猓玀、猓猓、玀玀：四川之峨邊、馬邊、雷波，西康之越雋、冕寧、西昌、鹽源、鹽邊、會理、寧南、昭覺，雲南之昭通、祿勸、武定、蒙化、路南、瀘西、彌勒、元江、石屏、臨安，貴州之威寧、畢節、大定、水城、織金、郎岱、普定、關嶺，廣西之西隆、西林、樂業、鎭邊、田西、上思、天峨等縣屬有之。

改正：倮儸（ㄌㄨㄛˊ—ㄌㄨㄛˊ，Luo-Luo）。

說明：猓改作倮，說見上條。玀在舊字書僅見於龍龕手鑑："同阿"，康熙字典收入備考；辭源："音羅"，中華大字典："良何切，音羅"，辭海："讀如羅"；今改其字從人，羅聲，作儸。儸，廣韻："魯何切"；集韻："良何切"，並音羅；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄌㄨㄛˊ，Luo）。

附註：凡黑猓玀、白猓玀、大猓玀、小猓玀、妙猓玀、乾猓玀、海猓玀、葛（亦作個）猓玀、魯吾（亦作魯屋）猓玀、撒彌（亦作撒米）猓玀、撒完猓玀、阿者猓玀、普拉猓玀、阿者猓玀等之"猓玀"概作"倮儸"。

40. 阿猓：雲南之文山縣屬有之。

改正：阿倮（ㄚˋ—ㄌㄨㄛˊ，Ah-Luo）。

說明：猓改作倮，說見38。

41. 阿猖：雲南之保山、騰衝、龍陵等縣屬有之。

改正：阿昌（ㄚˋ—ㄔㄤ，Ah-Chang）。

說明：猖，廣韻："尺良切"，集韻、韻會："黃良切"，正韻："齒良切"，並音昌；如改其字從人，昌聲，作倡，易誤爲倡優之倡，各家記載本多作昌（阿昌或峨昌），今卽去其人旁作昌。昌，廣韻："尺良切，集韻、韻會："蚩良切"，正韻："齒良切"；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄔㄤ，Chang）。

42. 猰子：雲南之永善，及貴州之威寧、畢節等縣屬有之。

改正：＊傒子（ㄧ—ㄗ，Yih-tz）。

說明：猰，不見於古今通行字書，四川雷波縣北有猰子村，當係羿加犬旁而來；今改其字從人，羿聲，作傒。傒，亦不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄧ，Yih）。

43. 猰人、猰子：雲南之維西縣屬及貢山、碧江、康樂、瀘水等設治局屬有之。

改正：怒人（ㄋㄨˋ—ㄖㄣˊ，Nuh-ren）。

說明：猰，不見於舊時通行字書，新字典放入拾遺，各家記載通作怒人或怒子，怒，亦作潞；今卽改作怒。怒，集韻、韻會、正韻："奴故切"，今卽定其音讀爲（ㄋㄨˋ，nuh）。

44. 猓玀：雲南之武定、元謀、永勝、華坪、中甸、維西、雲龍、騰衝、龍陵、鎮康、順寧等縣屬，康樂、碧山、瀘水、貢山、等設治局屬及西康之鹽源、鹽邊等縣屬有之。

改正：＊傈僳（ㄌㄧˋ—ㄙㄨˋ，Liq-suq）。

說明：㺜，不見於舊字書，中華大字典、辭海並直音："讀如栗"，今改其字從人，栗聲，作傈。傈，字彙："力質切，音栗"；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄌㄧˋ，liq）

㺜，亦不見於舊字書，辭源："讀如栗"；今改其字從人，栗聲，作傈。傈不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄙㄨˋ，suq）。

附註：凡黑㺜㺜、白㺜㺜、花㺜㺜之"㺜㺜"，概作"傈傈"。

45. 喇猰：雲南之文山縣屬有之。

改正：喇倭（ㄌㄚˋ—ㄒㄧ，Lah-shi）。

說明：猰，集韻："弦鷄切，音奚"；今改其字從人，奚聲、作倭。倭，廣韻："胡鷄切"，集韻、韻會、正韻："弦鷄切"，並音奚；今卽定其音讀爲ㄒㄧ，shi）。

46. 猺人：廣西之桂平、象縣、武宣、興安、灌陽、桂林、平南、蒙山、荔蒲、恭城、全縣、資源、榴江、靈川、鳳山、昭平、陽朔、龍勝、百壽、永福、賀縣、鍾山、平樂、田西、天峩、修仁、三江、融縣、羅城、宜北、南丹、河池、都安、果德、西隆、西林、凌雲、東蘭、田陽、田東、黃岡、天保、向都、鎭邊、平治、敬德、樂業、百色、鎭結、雷平、那馬、隆山、忻城、宜山、遷江、上林、中渡、義寧、富川、蒼梧，廣東之淸遠、從化、新會、曲江、英德、龍川、高要、四會、新興、陽春、陽江、思平、封川、德慶、開建、茂名、電白、信宜、化縣、合蒲、靈山、羅定、連山、連縣，雲南之文山、馬關，貴州之荔波、貴定及湖南之辰溪、溆蒲、黔陽、綏寧、城步、武岡、邵陽等縣屬有之。

改正：傜人（ㄧㄠˊ—ㄖㄣˊ，Yau-ren）。

說明：猺，廣韻、集韻並："餘招切，音遙"；今改其字從人，䍃聲，作傜。傜，廣韻、集韻、韻會、正韻並："餘招切，音姚"，今卽定其音讀爲（ㄧㄠˊ，Yau）。

附註：凡梳猺、紅猺、黑猺、白猺、狗猺（或作狗頭猺）、板猺（或作頂板猺）、大良猺、平地猺、過山猺、山子猺、盤古猺、竹箭猺、紅頭猺、藍靛猺、長髮猺、花籃猺、令句猺、赤膊猺等之"猺"概作傜；其狗或狗頭、赤膊等形容詞，概予廢止。

47. 獏猺：廣東之合浦縣屬有之。

改正：莫傜（ㄇㄛˋ—ㄧㄠˊ，Moq-yau）。

說明：獏，集韻：“蒙晡切，音模”；各家記載本多作莫；其人亦自言因先祖有功而免徭役，故以爲名；今卽採用莫。莫，集韻、正韻：“末各切”，今卽定其音讀爲（ㄇㄛˋmoq）。

48. 獙人（獙，亦作驃、縹，互見驃人）：雲南之舊永昌府屬有之，今已少見記載。

改正：縹人（ㄆㄧㄠˇ—ㄖㄣˊ，Piau-ren）。

說明：獙，不見於古今通行字書，各家記載本多作縹，今採用之。縹，廣韻：“敷紹切”，集韻、韻會：“匹紹切”，正韻：“普詔切”；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄆㄧㄠˇ，Piau）。

49. 獠人：宋初西南各道有之，元、明以來，已不見記載。

改正：僚人（ㄌㄠˇ—ㄖㄣˊ，Lao-ren）。

說明：獠，集韻，類篇並：“魯皓切，音老”；今改其字從人，巢聲，作僚。僚，集韻：“土絞切”，今改定其音讀爲（ㄌㄠˇ，Lao）。

50. 獞人：廣西之上思、蒙山、榴江、鳳山、龍勝、永福、鍾山、田西、修仁、貴縣、三江、羅城、宜北、南丹、河池、果德、橫縣、凌雲、東蘭、田東、萬岡、天保、向都、同正、平治、敬德，廣東之茂名、化縣、信宜、電白、鬱山，貴州之荔波等縣屬有之。

改正：撞人（ㄓㄨㄤˋ—ㄖㄣˊ，Juanq-ren）。

說明：獞改作撞，說見6。

51. 獠人、獠子：廣西之晉城、鳳山、修仁、三江、西林、平治等縣屬有之。

改正：僚人（ㄌㄠˇ—ㄖㄣˊ，Lau-ren）。

說明：獠改作僚，說見7。

52. 土獠：雲南之建水、蒗山、石屏、路南、廣南、瀘西、師宗、文山等縣屬有之。

改正：土僚（ㄊㄨˇ—ㄌㄠˇ，Tuu-lau）。

說明：獠改作僚，說見7。

附註：凡花土獠、白土獠、黑土獠等之“獠”，概作“僚”。

53. 撲喇（撲亦作犦、撲、樸，互見犦喇）：雲南之建水、石屏、薤山、開遠、路南、廣南、瀘西、師宗、文山等縣屬有之。

改正：撲喇（ㄆㄨˊ—ㄌㄚˊ，Puq-la）。

說明：撲，廣韻、集韻並：“博木切，音卜”，廣韻：“撲鉛，南極之夷”；各家記載本頗多作撲或樸，今採用撲。撲，集韻、韻會：“普木切”，正韻：“普卜切”；今定其音讀爲（ㄆㄨˊ，Puq）。

附註：凡白撲喇、花撲喇等之“撲”，概作“撲”。

54. 獦獠：宋時廣南（今廣東、廣西）有之，元、明以來，已不見記載。

改正：僿僚（ㄍㄜˊ—ㄌㄠˇ，Ger-lau）。

說明：獦，玉篇：“古曷切”，集韻：“居曷切”，並音葛；今改其字從人，葛聲，作僿。僿，不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄍㄜˊ，Ger）。獠，改作僚，說見7。

55. 獟獠：西康之西昌縣屬有之。

改正：＊僇僇（ㄌㄨˋ—ㄌㄨˇ，Luh-luu）。

說明：獟，字彙補：“盧故切，音路”，康熙字典收入補遺；今改其字從人，路聲，作僇。僇，不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄌㄨˋ，Luh）。獠，不見於舊字書，辭源、中華大字典、辭海並直音：“讀如魯”；今改其字人，魯聲，作僇。僇，亦不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄌㄨˇ，luu）。

56. 獽人（或作獽苗，誤）：貴州之貞豐、羅甸、册亨、紫雲，雲南之廣南、瀘西、師宗、文山，廣西之榴江、天保、向都等縣屬有之。

改正：儂人（ㄋㄨㄥˊ—ㄖㄣˊ，Nong-ren）。

說明：獽，廣韻、集韻並：“奴多切，音農”；今改其字從人，農聲，作儂。儂，“廣韻、集韻：“奴多切”，正韻：“奴宗切”，並音農；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄋㄨㄥˊ，Nong）。

57. 獁猸：雲南之中甸、維西、麗江、蒗坪、永勝，西康之鹽源、鹽邊、康定、雅江、瀘定、理化、稻成、貢噶、義敦、鹽井、定鄉、德榮、武城、寧靜、科麥、察隅、太昭、嘉黎等縣屬有之。

改正：麼些（ㄇㄛˊ—ㄙㄨㄛ，Mo-Suo）。

說明：獁猸二字均不見於古今通行字書，唐作作磨些（磨、或作摩，又作麼；些、或作娑），其犬旁當係近人所加；今採用其較通行之"麼些"二字。麼，麼之俗字，集韻、韻會："母果切"，正韻："忙果切"，今卽定其音讀爲（ㄇㄛˊ，mo）。些，與麼子連用作族名讀音據集韻："桑何切"，韻會："蘇箇切"，並音娑；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄙㄨㄛ，suo）。

58. 玀夷：雲南之騰衝、保山、龍陵、雲縣、順寧、鎭康、緬寧、雙江、瀾滄、車里、南嶠、佛海、鎭越、六順、江城、鎭沅、新平、墨江、寧洱、思茅、景谷、靖邊、金河、文山及西康之鹽邊等縣屬有之。

改正：擺夷（ㄅㄞˇ—ㄧˊ，Bae-yi）。

說明：玀不見於古今通行字書，其字本多作擺，或作焚，誤，今用擺。擺，集韻、韻會、正韻："補買切"，並音拜；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄅㄞˇ，Bae）。

附註：凡旱玀夷、水玀夷、花玀夷等之"玀"，概作"擺"。

59. 獽人：四川之舊簡州有之，今已不見記載。

改正：儾人（ㄖㄤˊ—ㄖㄣˊ，Rang-ren）。

說明：獽，廣韻："汝陽切"，集韻："如陽切"，並音穰，今改其字從人，襄聲，作儾。儾，集韻："忍將切，音壤"；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄖㄤˊ，rang）

60. 玀緬：雲南之祿勸、元謀等縣屬有之。

改正：儸緬（ㄌㄨㄛˊ—ㄇㄧㄢˇ，luo-mean）。

說明：玀改作儸，說見38，猸，不見於古今通行字書，各家記載大多作緬；今卽採用之。緬，廣韻、集韻、韻會並："彌兗切，音湎"，正韻："美辨切，音免"；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄇㄧㄢˇ，mean）。

以上改正犬旁（包括兼從羊聲之狌及鹿聲之獐）字命名凡六十。

61. 驃人（驃，亦作獳、縹，互見獳人）：雲南之舊永昌府屬有之，今已少見記載。

改正：縹人（ㄆㄧˇㄠˊㄖㄣˊ，Peau-ren）。

說明：驃，說文、集韻、韻會、正韻並："毗召切"；今改作縹，說詳38。

以上改正馬旁字命名一。

62. 犎鷄（犎，亦作猧，互見24，猧鷄）：雲南之文山、開遠、建水、石屏、蒙自、峨山、河西、通海等縣屬有之。

改正：俘儭（ㄇˇㄨˋㄐㄧˋ，Muu-ji）。

說明：犎，集韻："莫後切，音母"；今改其字從人，母聲，作俘。鷄改作儭；說並見24。

附註：凡黑犎鷄、白犎鷄之"犎鷄"，概作"俘儭"。

63. 犭朴喇（犭朴，亦作獘、撲、僕，互見53，獘喇）：雲南之建水、石屏、峨山、開遠、路南、廣南、瀘西、師宗、文山等縣屬有之。

改正：撲喇（ㄆㄨˊㄌㄚˊ，Puq-la）。

說明：犭朴，廣韻、集韻並："匹角切，音璞"；今改作撲，說見53。

附註：凡白犭朴喇、花犭朴喇等之"犭朴"，概作"撲"。

以上改正牛旁字命名凡二。

64. 羯些、羯些子：雲南之騰衝縣屬有之。

改正：偈些（ㄐㄧㄝˊㄒㄧㄝ，Jieq-shie）。

說明：羯，說文："居謁切"，廣韻："居竭切"，集韻、韻會："居謁切"，並音訐；今改其字從人，曷聲，作偈。偈，廣韻："渠列切"，集韻："巨列切"，並音傑；今卽定其音讀爲（ㄐㄧˊㄝˊ，Jieq）。

以上改正羊旁字命名一。

65. 蜑家、蜑戶（蜑、或作蛋，又作狚）：閩、粵沿海，廣東珠江口各縣屬水上，以及廣西之蒼梧、邕寧等縣屬，西江水上有之。

改正：＊誕家（ㄉㄢˋㄐㄧㄚ，Dann-jia）。

說明：蜑，說文、廣韻並："徒旱切"，集韻、韻會："蕩旱切"，正韻："徒

亶切”，並音但；今改其字從蜑省，但聲，作蜑。蜑，不見於古今通行字書，今定其音讀爲（ㄉㄢˋ，dann）。

66. 蠻人：有廣狹二義：廣義指所有西南少數民族；狹義指貴州之貴定、都匀等縣屬所有者。

改正：嫚人（ㄇㄢˊ—ㄇㄣˊ，Man-ren）。

說明：蠻，說文：“莫還切”，集韻、韻會、正韻：“謨還切”，並音獌；今改其字作蠻。蠻，說文古籀補：“古蠻字不從蟲”，金文編：“蠻不從蟲”；其音讀爲（ㄇㄢˊ，man）。

以上改正蟲旁命名凡二。

（三）改正蟲獸偏旁命名字對照表

（甲）改從人旁者，凡四十三字：

原命名用字	改正	備註
犵（1.犵人、2.犵狫、3.犵狫、4.犵兜、5.犵獠、6.犵獞、7.犵獠、8.犵玀、9.犵玀、）	仡	
狫（10.狫獠）	仅	
狐（11.狉狐）	佤	
狌（12.狌人）	伢	
狆（13.狆人、狆家）	仲	
狇（14.狇人、狇家）	仫	
狇（15.狇人）	仫	仫、或作狇，誤。
狚（16.狚猺）	估	
狉（17.狉狐、18.狉喇、19.阿狉）	伟	
狙（20.狙人）	但	
狙（21.狙人、貊人）	佴	狙、或貊，誤。

狹（22.狹人）	佚	
猾（24.猾鷄、猾幾）	俰	猾，亦作犎，互見犎。
狏（25.狏人、狏人）	伉	狏，亦作狏，並改伉。
狸（3.犵狸、11.狇狸）	佬	
猜（28.猜獠）	佶	
狪（29.狪人、狪家）	侗	
狢（30.狢獫、31.狢獾）	佫	
犎（62.犎鷄）	俰	犎，亦作猾，互見猾。
狼（33.狼人）	俍	
狯（34.狯人、狯子、狸子）	佮	狯，或作狸，並改佮。
狸（35.狸人）	俚	
猕（16.猜猕）	倄	
狹（36.狹人）	俠	
猓（38.猓黑、39.猓玀、42.阿猓）	倮	
獚（27.狆獚）	僨	獚，或作獷，並改僨。
猰（42.猰子）	傑	
猓（44.猓猓）	傈	
猲（45 喇猲）	俟	
猺（46.猺人、獞猺）	侻	
獀（5.犵獀）	傻	
獯（49.獯人）	傑	
羯（64.羯些子）	偈	
猓（44.猓猓）	傈	
獠（51.獠人、52.土獠、7.犵獠、28.猜獠、54.獞獠）	僚	
獞（8.犵獞）	僮	
獐（55.獐獞）	僣	

獽（56.獽人）	儂	
獠（55.獠獠）	僧	
獽（59.獽人）	儜	
玀（60.玀緬、39.玀玀）	儸	
獧（ 9.犵獧）	儇	

以上改正犬旁字四十一，牛旁、羊旁字各一。

（乙）改用同音假借字者，凡二十二字。

原命名用字	改正	備註
狇（11.狇猪）	木	
狫（23.狫人、 2.犵狫）	令	
狎（26.狎人、27.狎黃）	侵	
狌（32.狌人）	沙	
狌（57.獽狌）	些	
猓（37.猓武）	羅	
猖（41.阿猖）	昌	
猔（60.玀猔）	緬	
猰（30.猺猰）	俞	
猰（43.猰人、猰子）	怒	
蜑（65.蜑家、蜑戶）	*誓	蜑，或作蛋，並改誓。
獠（31.猺獠）	*僚	
獍（48.獍人）	縹	獍，或作驃，互見驃。
獏（47.獏猺）	莫	
獞（59.獞人、 6.犵獞）	擋	
獍（53.獍喇）	撲	獍，或作犥，互見犥。
犥（63.犥喇）	撲	犥，或作獍，互見獍。

獠（57.獠猺）	麼	
玀（57.玀夷）	摩	
驃（61.驃人）	縹	驃，或作獙，互見獙。
蠻（66.蠻人）	嶡	
鷄（24.狪鷄或 62.犵鷄）	儳	鷄，亦作獙。

以上改正犬旁字凡十七（內有兼從羊聲之狌及襄聲之獽），蟲旁字二，馬旁、牛旁字各一，又鳥類字一。

ON THE ORIGIN OF THE TRIBAL NAMES IN SOUTHWESTERN CHINA WITH INSECT-BEAST-SIGNIFIED RADICAL CHARACTERS

(A Summary)

The tribal names of the four bordering quarters of China have long been written in Chinese with insect-beast-signified radical characters. We see the names of Man (蠻), Moh or Mo (貊), Ti (狄), Hsien (獫), in the Chinese classics written before the Ch'in (秦) Dynasty, and of Tan (蜑), Jang (獽), Lao (獠), Lao (獽), in the historical literature of the Han (漢) and the later dynasties, and above all, of many southwestern tribal names with dog-radical (犬旁) characters appeared in the writings of many authors since the Sung (宋) and the Yuan (元) Dynasties.

This paper attempts primarily to inquire about the origin of the tribal names with insect-beast-signified radicals as a whole. As a result of an historical as well as ethnographical study on these tribal names, the writer has found out four major sources as to why the insect-beast-signified radical characters have been used in writing. Most probably, they were originated from the causes which may be summarized as follows:

(1) the despising of borderland tribes;

(2) the misconception of certain tribespeople believing to be descended from insects or beasts;

(3) the environmental conditions or manners and customs of certain tribes;

(4) the totemic belief of certain tribespeople.

As a matter of fact, the insect-beast-signified radicals, especially the dog-signified radicals, which have been extensively used since the Sung and the Yuan Dynasties arisen mostly from the despising of borderland tribes, only a few of them came from the other three sources.

Furthermore, the paper makes a separate study of the tribal names under the headings of: the insect radicals, the dog radicals, the dog-and-cattle radicals, the dog-and-horse radicals, and the sheep radicals. All the important tribal names with insect-beast -signified radicals in Southwestern China as collected and corrected in a list recently promulgated in 1940 by the National Government have been discused on philological and historical grounds, while the promulagated list of the corrected tribal names is appended to this paper.

VI. NOTES ON THE ETHNIC MINORITIES OF SOUTH CHINA

I

Situated in the southeastern section of Greater China[1], South China is a region with distinctive characteristics in sharp contrast to North China. In the last quarter of the 13th century Marco Polo was impressed by the contrast that he gave the two divisions separate names: Cathay (derived from Khitan 契丹, or the Liao 遼 Dynasty) for the North and Manji (蠻子, literally, the Barbarians 蠻人) for the South (Sykes, 1961, pp. 66-83). In his well-known book entitled My Country and My People Dr. Lin Yutang points out that apart from the cultural unity which binds the Chinese people as a nation, the southern Chinese differ probably as much from the

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* This is adapted and expanded from my lecture (in draft manuscript) delivered before my class of "Ethnography and Ethnology of China" at the Indiana Univercity, Bloomington, in 1966.

1. The whole of China is the third largest country in the world (the U.S.S.R., the largest, with 8,597,000 square mlies; Canada, the second, with 3,848,144 square miles; China followed by Brazil, the fourth, with 3,236,170 square miles; and the U.S.A., the fifth, with 3,022,387 square miles), with an area of 3,657,765 square miles and the largest in population amounting 600 millions in the 1950's. Situated between 73° east longitude, the east Pamirs (帕米爾) of Sinkiang, the Roof of the World in the west; and 135°at the confluence of the Heilungkiang (黑龍江) and the Usuri (烏蘇里) Rivers in the east; and between 10° north latitude in the Nansha Islands (南沙羣島) in the South China Sea in the south; and 53° in Moho County (漠河) of Heilungkiang Province in the north; she borders the sea for 3,300 miles in the east and southeast. On her landward side, the frontier extends for 9,300 miles, facing Korea in the east, Outer Mongolia in the north, the U. S. S. R. in the northeast and northwest, India, Nepal, Bhutan in the southwest, and Burma, Laos and Vietnam in the south (cf. Cressey, 1955, pp. 30-32; Tregear, 1965, pp. XV, 101-104).

northerners, in temperament, physique and habits, as the Mediterraneans differ from the Nordic peoples in Europe. Happily, within the orbit of the Chinese culture there has not been a rise of nationalism, but only of provincialism, which after all was what made peace within the empire possible for centuries. The common historical tradition, the written language, which has in a singular way solved the problem of Esperanto in China, and the cultural homogeneity achieved through centuries of slow, peaceful penetration of a civilization over comparatively docile aborigines, have achieved for China the basis of the common brotherhood so much desired now in Europe (1939, p. 17).

Although both sections have many qualities in common, no observer can travel over land from Peiping (北平) to Canton (廣州) without finding great differences in the biogeographical environment. The semiarid North is brown and dusty, being a land of limited and uncertain rainfall, with large areas of level land, but with precarious agriculture and frequent famine; while the humid South is green, being a land of abundant rainfall, with many canals and paddy fields. In the North the chief crops are millet, wheat, kaoliang and beans and the growing season is but 4 or 6 months, with one crop, or in some places two; while in the South the chief crops are rice, tea, silk and bamboo and the growing season is 9 months to a year with two or three crops. The North is the place where the Han-Chinese developed their culture millenia ago, while the South is the region into which the Han-Chinese expanded consecutively ever since the first millenium B.C. The people in the North are tall in stature (168.57 cm.), broad in head form (C.I. 81.14), high in nose form (N.I. 68.66), and speak an almost uniform dialect similar to Mandarin; while the people in the South are shorter in stature (160.92 cm.) longer in head form (C.I.

79.97), broader in nose form(N.I. 93.19), and speak a multitude of dialects (see below). These differences are so distinct that they divide Chungyuan (中原) or Core China(or China Proper as called by the Westerners) into two great geographical subdivisions[2]. The boundary between them is transitional. Many characteristics overlap or merge gradually form one region to the other.

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2. George Babcook Cressey presents these differences in a tabular form in order to make them more vivid as follows (Cressey, 1634, p. 15):

The North	The South
Limited, uncertain rainfall, 400 to 600 mm.	Abundant rainfall, 800-1,600 mm.
Disastrous floods and droughts, "China's sorrow."	Canals and irrigation, water always available.
Cold winters, hot summers, a little snow.	Cool winters, hot, moist summers, snow and ice uncommon.
Four to six months growing season, one or two crops.	Nine months to a year growing season, two or three crops.
Semiarid climate strongly influenced by Mongolia.	Subtropical climate, summer monsoon rains, and typhoons.
Precarious agriculture, with a small margin of safety if the rain is abnormal.	Intensive cultivation, cropfailure rare, large yields.
Dry terraces.	Irrigated terraces.
Unleached calcareous soils.	Leached noncalcareous soils.
Frequent famines, almost every year in some district.	Relative prosperity, except for overcrowding.
Kaoliang, millet, wheat, beans.	Rice the dominant crop.
Grassless and treeless.	Bamboo and abundant vegetation.
Brown and dust-blown during the winter.	Green landscape at all seasons.
Roads and two-wheeled carts, draft animals.	Flagstone trails and sedan chairs, coolie carriers.
Donkeys and mules.	Water buffalo.
Mud-walled houses with heated brick beds or kangs.	Woven bamboo walls and thatch-roofed houses.
Cities with wide streets.	Teeming crowded cities, narrow streets.
Smooth coast line with poor harbors, fishing unimportant.	Irregular coast line with many good harbors, fishing.
Foreign intercourse by land.	Foreign intercourse by water.
Emigration to Manchuria.	Emigration to the "South Seas".
Essentially uniform race, with Mongolian mixture.	Racial variations, with primitive non-Chinese tribes.
Mandarine dialect throughout.	Great diversity of dialects.
Classical and conservative, scholars.	Radical and restless, merchants and adventurers.

In general, the biogeographical change takes places midway between the Chang Kiang (長江) or Yangtze River (揚子江) and the Hwang Ho (黃河) or Yellow River along the 34th degree north parallel. In the east the boundary follows the valley of the Hwai River (淮河), while farther west it coincides with the crest of the Tsinling (秦嶺) Mountain (cf. Cressey, 1934, pp. 13-17).

II

During the first millenium B.C. the lands of South China were inhabited by non-Han tribespeople collectively known as Nan-Man (南蠻, Southern Barbarians) or Ch'ün-Man (羣蠻, Groups of Barbarians), Man-Yi (蠻夷, both meaning Barbarians), who were pushed to the far south and southwest under the pressure of the Han-Chinese southward expansion. The Han-Chinese developed their culture in the Yellow River region since the third millenium B.C. and expanded southward first into the Yangtze River, then into the Si or West River (西江) regions, in a later time into the small basins of Yunnan-Kweichow plateau(雲貴高原), and still later into Southeast Asia ever since the latter half of the first millenium B.C. As a result, they conquered and drove out, or exterminated, or absorbed, most of the aboriginal inhabitants occupying the Yangtze and Si River valleys (Wiens, 1954, pp. 130-167; Hulse, 1963, pp.350-352). Today remaining remnants inhabiting the provinces of Szechuan (四川), Yunnan (雲南), Kweichow (貴州), Hunan (湖南), Kwangsi (廣西), Kwangtung (廣東), Kiangsi (江西), Fukien (福建), Taiwan (臺灣), and Chekiang (浙江), numbering obuat 20 million, aside from emigrants to Southeast Asia, are still significant, although they represent

only 7.4% of the total population of the ten provinces[3] (about 270 million, excluding Hupei (湖北), Anhwei (安徽) and Kiangsu (江蘇) where no aborigines are found) where they are found mostly in the mountainous regions and small basins. We can count, among many others, some thirty ethnic groups which are of significance either for the size of population or for other specific features: the Achang (阿昌) or Maingtha, Ami (阿美), Atayal (泰雅), Bunun (布農), Ch'iang (羌), Chingpaw (景頗) or Kachin, Chiutze (俅子) or Tulung (毒龍), Chuang (僮), Hani (哈尼) or Woni(窩泥), Kawa (佧佤) or Wa, Kala (佧喇) or La, Kehlao (仡佬), Lahu (拉祜), Li (黎), Lisu (傈僳), Lutze (怒子), Miao (苗), Nasi (納西) or Moso (麼些), Nung (儂), Pai (白) or Minchia (民家), Paiwan (排灣), Paiyi (擺夷) or Tai (傣), Lü (呂), Palaung (崩龍), Puyi (佈依) or Chungchia (仲家), She

3. Area and population in the ten provinces of south China :

Province	Area in sq.mi.*	Pop. 1953 Census*	Pop. 1957 Estimation+	Density per sq. mi. 1953
Chekiang	39,621	22,865,747	25,280,000	577
Fukien	45,539	13,142,712	14,650,000	289
Taiwan	13,881	7,591,298	10,100,000	544
Kwangtung	84,541	34,770,059	37,960,000	411
Kwangsi	84,505	19,560,822	19,390,000	231
Kiangsi	66,783	16,772,865	18,610,000	251
Hunan	79,042	33,226,954	36,220,000	420
Szechuan	117,324	62,303,999	72,160,000	531
Kweichow	65,696	15,037,310	16,890,000	229
Yunnan	162,300	17,472,737	19,100,000	108
TOTAL	759,242	242,744,503	270,360,000	320
WHOLE CHINA	3,564,953	590,194,706	656,630,000	161

* Based on Chang, Yin-t'ang, 1956, pp. 214-215.

+ Based on the State Statistical Bureau, Ten Great Years, Peking, 1960, pp. 11-12.

(畲) or Shemin, Sui (Shui, 仫), Tan (疍) or Tanmin, Tuchia (土家), Tung (侗) or Kam, Yao (傜), Yi (彝) or Lolo (倮儸), etc., etc.

Most, if not all, of these people came most probably, as having been traced by geographers, historians, and especially philologists, from the land of Great Canyons[4] (橫斷山脈) of western China, known to the Tibetans as Kham (康or喀木) and Amdo, (安多or阿木多) where Tibet , Sikang (西康), Chinghai (青海) , Szechuan and Yunnan merge into one another. It is the intervening high ranges with a general northwest and southeast orientation as well as the lofty cradle of great rivers, forming thoroughfares for the primitive forerunners to settle and pass along the river courses. Thence flow the upper courses of the Yellow, Yangtze, Mekong (瀾滄), and Salween (怒) rivers; from the southernmost edge of the land of Great Corrosion come the Si (西) River and the Yuankiang (元江) or Red River (紅河) flowing to the southeast, and the Irrawaddy and the Chindwin rivers to southwest. Whenever we have, more or less, a reliable clue of speech or tradition to follow, we are led up in the direction of this region which, it seems most probably, shed its tribespeople from time immemorial, like its waters, over the whole of core China and Southeast Asia (cf. Lowis, 1919, p. 1.). Thus a people following down the Yellow River would find themselves in the Yellow River valley in North China. Another travelling the valley of the Yangtze would ultimately come out in the Yangtze Delta in East China and the Valley of the Si in the Canton Delta in South China. The Red River and the Mekong would lead to the northeastern and southwestern slopes of the Ailao (哀牢) Mountains in Yunnan and of the Indochina Moutains in Vietnam,

4. The land of Great Canyons is in the former province of Sikang east of which was reabsorbed into Szechuan in 1955 with the Chingshakiang (金沙江) or Golden Sand River (the upper course of the Yangtze) as the boundary line, west of which has since been called Changtu Chuan Ch'u (昌都專區) .

and ultimately to the Red and Mekong deltas respectively, while the Salween would point the way to the eastern slopes of Kaolikung (高黎貢) Mountain in Yunnan and Burma and to the western slopes of Malay Peninsula (cf. Cole, 1945, pp. 5-6; Haddon, 1911, pp. 30-32; Buxton, 1925, pp. 170-133, 220-223). Apparently, the fact is that South China does not, geographically as well as ethnologically, stop at the borders of Vietnam, Laos, Burma, and India, whereat centuries of migration, trade, and political relationships, link the people of South China with Southeast Asia. From this point of view, the entire region might be termed Greater Mainland Southeast Asia as some authors suggest, because this region forms an integrated whole for purposes of the study of racial and linguistic history, ethnic distribution, and cultural evolution (LeBar et al, 1964, p. vi) .

Ⅲ

Racially, the people of South China have long been recognized by physical anthropologists as Southern Mongoloid or Pareoean (Haddon, 1929, p. 32; Woo and Morant, 1932, pp. 108-134). More recently they are classified as a large local race called "Southeast Asiatic" including the Vietnamese, Siamese, Burmese, Malayans, Indonesians, Filippinos, etc. in addition to the Southern Chinese (Coon, Garn, and Birdsell, 1950, p. 135; Garn, 1962, p. 129; Dobzhansky, 1962, p. 263). Culturally, South China has been included in the distinct culture area of "Southeast Asia and Indonesia" or simply "Southeast Asia" (Bacon and Hudson, 1945, pp. 523-525; Bacon, 1946, pp. 117-132; Kroeber, 1947, pp. 322-330; Herskovits, 1948, p. 193; Naroll, 1950, pp. 183-187). It indicates in a broader sense that the peoples

of South China and those of Southeast Asia have the same origin and could not be easily distinguished from each other both in racial characteristics and in native cultural traits. As a matter of fact, the difference between them is not very great in physique and in culture with regard to indigenous ways of life. It may be likened with the land of South China and of Southeast Asia in the sense that we cannot separate them in topographical features.

However, population movements, commercial intercourse, and cultural and political developments are affected by mountain ranges, river systems, coastlines, islands and their distribution. Also important are the features which determined the rhythm of the sea-borne trade such as climatic variations, the incidence rainfall and the influence of the pattern of the seasonal monsoon winds. The diversified situation of the region thus restricted the activities of the peoples on the one hand, and produced the diversity of their cultures on the other, besides the alien influences. Having been influcnced millenia long by the Chinese and the Hindus and centuries long by the Arabs and the Westerners, they stand between their own static, largely self-contained world of the past and our dynamic intercontinental world of today (Harrison, 1963, p. 208). Let us now leave Southeast Asia and return to our discussion on south China.

In addition to the Han-Chinese who were not the original inhabitants and are relatively late-comers, the non-Han peoples or ethnic minorities of south China comprise a great variety of ethnic minorities as related above. They have as yet been only partially drawn into the Han-Chinese cultural sphere, and show considerable ethnical variation. Some groups still retain important elements of their own cultural traditions (e.g., the Tai or Paiyi, Yi or Lolo, Chingpaw or Kachin, etc.); some possess only certain survivals of ancient customs (e.g., the Miao, Chuang, Chungchia or Puyi,

etc.); and some others have been so completely assimilated by the Han-Chinese (e.g., the Pai or Minchia, Kehlao, Shemin, etc.) that little trace of their original culture is discernable. However, certain basic traits, with regional modifications, are to be found throughout south China as well as the whole area of Southeast Asia. Wherever irrigation is possible, including mountain slopes achieved by elaborate terracing, the economy is based on wet rice agriculture. In the uplands dry farming is practised, in fields prepared for planting by slashing and burning over the forest growth. Since the last century dry rice has in many places been displaced to a considerable extent by maize. Pigs and chickens are the predominant food animals except where the Moslems taboo the use of pork. Fish is a stable food item, while cattle is killed only for ceremonial use or as sacrifice to deities or spirits and milk is never used in the diet. The water buffalo serves as draft animal, while balance pole is the chief means of tsansportation. Other traits with but minor regional variations such as dwellings are mostly of bamboo or similar tropical material, but mud or stone houses with thatched roofs are also found in many places, especially in the upland regions. Pile houses are found in many places, particularly among the Tai-speaking peoples. The patrilineal family is predominant except on the east of Taiwan where matrilineal groups occur among the Ami. The village, or in some cases a cluster of villages, is the functioning social and governmental unit, with headman or chiefship in some cases and T'u-ssuship (土司制) in other cases. The latter is a kind of feudatory system (Wiens, 1954, pp. 207-266) which retains mostly in Yunnan until the establishment of the Communist Regime. Animism, or in some cases mixed with Taoism, giving attention to nature cult, and ancestor worship are predominant throughout south China. Hinayana Buddhism has been introduced only into the

Yunnan-Burma border regions, particularly among the Tai (Paiyi and Lü), many centuries since. Despite some minor regional variations, there has been such fusion of different tribes that even custom and legend is shared in common.

Ⅳ

Contemporary changes have further increased the complexity of the social and cultural nature of the minority peoples. So it is that if we are to attempt a classification of these peoples, we cannot look for our guide to custom, legend or folklore, but to speech[5] which is an important part of human behavior, governed by tradition and culture, apart from which it does not exist (Sapir, 1921, pp. 207-220). It has been made use of by quite a number of authors concerned with the classification of ethnic groups (Davies, 1909, pp. 334-369; Lowis, 1919. pp. 2-4; Le Bar et al, 1964, pp. v, ix-x; Coon, 1965, pp. 140-142; Burling, 1965, pp. 160-169). Having reconstructed the social prehistory of 250 distinctive societies Professor Murdock asserts that "linguistic stocks provide an ideal means of making a test. An irresistible conclusion from demonstrated linguistic relationships is that the ancestors of the peoples now speaking related languages must once have formed a single linguistic community, which must also have had a common culture including a common social organization. As the descendants of the speakers of the ancestral language subsequently spread into different

5. That resemblance of language is not necessarily a proof of the relationship of two or more ethnic groups is undoubtedly true, since conquest, migration, or other causes may have introduced an alien tongue, such as the Negroes of North American all speaking English. But if tested by other criteria and supported by probability and if not contracted by historical facts or marked physical diversity, recognized linguistic affinity may be accepted as affording evidence for identification of genetic relationship or historical connection (Davies, 1909, pp. 334-335; Lowis, 1919, pp. 2-3; Burling, 1964, pp. 160-162).

regions, they must necessarily have undergone modifications in culture and social structure as well as in language. By and large, therefore, we should expect differences in social organization among linguistically related peoples to decrease as we go backward in time, and to disappear as our time depth approaches the period of original linguistic community" (1949, pp. 346-347).

Insofar as having been observed (although not yet sufficiently and accurately investigated) by linguists, the languages spoken by most of the ethnic minorities of South China accounted for above, may be tentatively classified as belonging to the following language groups:

A. Kam-Tai Group[6]—four types may be recognized:

Kam-Sui:[7]

Tung or Kam	700,000	S. E. Kweichow, S. W. Hunan, and N. Kwangsi
Sui (Shui)	130,000	S. E. Kweichow

Northern Tai:

Chungchia	1,240,000	S. W. Kweichow, E. Yunnnan
Chuang	7,000,000	S. and W. Kwangsi, S. E. Yunnan

6. The Kam-Tai group is proposed by F. K. Li to include the Kam-Sui dialects on the one hand and the Thai-Shan dialects on the other (Li, 1943, pp. 51-52; 1959, pp. 15-21; Chang, 1956, pp.302-303; Voegelin, 1965A, pp.5-14). It has long been included in the Sino-Tibetan family by a number of linguists such as Wilhelm Schmidt, George Grierson, Henri Maspero, Robert Shafer, R. A. D. Forrest, C. F. AND F. M. Voegelin (see Schmidt, 1926, pp. 123-133; Grierson, 1927, pp. 418-419; Maspero, 1929, pp. 64-67; Shafer, 1955, pp. 94-99; Forrest, 1943, pp. 19-23; Voegelin, 1964, pp. 7-9). Paul Benedict's postulation of a relationship between Thai, Kadai, and Indonesian (1942, pp. 576-601; 1966, pp. 227-261) is doubtful and much debated (Haudricourt, 1943, pp. 233 ff; Forrest, 1943, pp. 96-97; Shafer, 1955, pp. 97-93; Note 8; Ruey, 1956, pp. 293-297; Gleason, 1961, p. 470; Voegelin, 1964, pp. 9-11).

7. C. F. AND F. M. Voegelin's classification includes Kui (Jui) in Kam-Sui. Kui is called Chungchia in Kweichow province and Chuangchia in Kwangsi province (Voegelin, 1965A, pp. 12-14).

Central Tai:

Nung	190,000	S. W. Kwangsi, S. E. Yunnan
Li	360,000	Hainan Island

Southwestern Tai:

Paiyi or Shan	500,000	S. W. Yunnan and Lü or Tai

B. Miao-Yao Group[8]—local variations are distinctive but not subdivided:

Miao	2,510,000	Kweichow, W. Hunan, S. Szechuan, Yunnan, N. Kwangsi; also in N. Vietnam, Laos, Thailand & Yunnan-Burma border area
Yao	660,000	Kwangsi, N. Kwangtung, S. W. Hunan, S. Yunnan, Hainan Island; also in N. Vietnam, Laos, Thailand.

C. Tibeto-Burman Group[9]—the following ten dialects are usually recognized as belonging to this group, but no satisfactory subdivisions have been worked out:

Ch' iang	35,000	N. W. Szechuan
Yi or Lolo	3,250,000	S. W. Szechuan, S. E. Sikang, Yunnan, N. W. Kweichow, N. W. Kwangsi; also

8. Miao-Yao has sometimes been thought to be related to Mon-Khmer or Thai (Davies, 1909, pp. 337-348; Schmidt, 1926, pp. 123-131, 133; Forrest, 1948, pp. 91-92), but it is now often considered to be a branch of Sino-Tibetan along with Tibeto-Burmese (Li, 1933, pp. 52-53; Forrest, 1948; pp. 89-96; Greenburg, 1953, p. 282; Chang, 1956, pp. 303-304; Voegelin, 1965B, pp. 1-18).

9. Tibeto-Burman is usually thought to be a branch of the Sino-Tibetan Family and comprises numerous diversified dialects spoken in Tibet, southwestern China, northeasternmost India, Nepal, Bhutan and Mainland Southeast Asia. It is, as yet, very difficult to get a clear picture of the internelationships of all the dialects (Schmidt, 1926, 123-133; Bloomfield, 1933, pp. 69-70; Gleason, 1961, p. 468; Shafer, 1955, pp. 94-111). Voeglins, however, distinguish the Burmese-Lolo from the Tibetan Family (1965D, p. 3).

		in N. Vietnam, Laos, & Yunnan-Burma border area.
Nasi or Moso	140,000	N. Yunnan & S. E. Sikang
Hani or Woni	480,000	S. C. Yunnan
Lahu	130,000	S. W. Yunnan; also in Laos, Thailand & Yunnan-Burma border area.
Lisu	310,000	W. Yunnan; also in Thailand & Burma
Lutze	12,700	N, W. Yunnan
Chiutze or Tulung	2,400	N. W. Yunnan; alo Yunnan-Sikang-Burma border area
Chingpaw or Kachin	100,000	N. W. Yunnan; also in Burma
Ach' ang or Maingtha	17,000	W. Yunnan; also in Burma

D. Mon-Khmer Group[10] two dialects are recognized:

Kawa or Wa and Kala or La	280,000	S. W. Yunnan; also in Burma
Palaung	2,900	W. Yunuan; also in Burma

E. Indonesian Group[11]—nine or more dialects are recognized of which the following four are numerically significant:

Ami	90,000	E. Taiwan
Atayal	55,000	N. Taiwan
Bunun	25,000	C. Taiwan
Paiwan	45,000	S. Taiwan

10. Wilhelm Schmidt has related Mon-Khmer with Munda forming his Austro-Asietic family (1926, pp. 135-140).

11. The aboriginal languages of Taiwan had been investigated by the Japanese linguist Ogawa Nao-yoshi (小川尚義) who classified them into 12 dialects, namely: Atayal, Seedeq, Saisiyat, Bunun, Tsou, Kanakanabu, Saaroa, Rukai, Paiwan, Puyuma, Ami, and Yami. They are spoken by 9 tribes each speaking one dialect except the Atayal speaking Atayal and Seedeq and the Tsou, Kanakanabu and Saaroa (1935, pp. 3-4).

The speech affinity of Kehlao[12] (with a population of 20,400 sporadically distributed in Kweichow, Western Hunan, and also in N. Vietnam), Pai or Minchia[13] (numbering 560,000, in western central Yunnan), and T'uchia[14] (numbering 300.000 in the borderlands of Hunan, Hupei, Kweichow, and Szechuan provinces) is doubtful or much debated and so left unclassified. Besides, the She or Shemin number 210,000 inhabiting the mountainous regions of southern Chekiang, northern Fukien, northeastern Kwangtung, and southernmost Kiangsi, and speak a sort of peculiar dialect close to Han-Chinese. The Tan or Tanmin, a boat people, number more than one million living along the sea coasts and on the rivers of Kwangtung and on the tributaries of the Si River in Kwangsi. They speak Cantonese,

12. Paul Benedict has suggested Kadai ("Ka" being the first syllable of the Kehlao word "Katsu" and "dai", a Li word, both meaning man) to include the dialects of Kehlao, Li, Laqua, and Lati (the latter two found in the Vietnam-Yunnan border). Although it has been accepted by Greenburg (1953, p. 282), Gleason (1961, p. 470), LeBar et al (following Greenburg, 1964, pp. 239-244), and Burling (1965, pp. 164-165), but it is very doubtful with controversy and disagreement (Forrest, 1948, pp. 96-97; Ruey; 1956, pp. 284-291); Voegelin, 1964, pp. 9-11; 1965A, pp. 11-12).

13. Pai or Minchia has been Considered as belonging to Sino-Tibetan or Tibeto-Burman, Mon-Khmer or Austro-Asiatic, Thai or Shan with strong Chinese influence. Greenburg is of the opinion that it seems to be Sino-Tibetan and should probably be included in the Sinitic subbranch (1953, p. 283). F. K. Li, however, says that it may possibly belong to the Tibeto-Burman group, but it shows strong Chinese influence in its vocabulary and in its word order and seems to be a mixed language (1943, p. 54). Kun Chang has the same opinion as Li, but says that the position of the negative words mu, "not to have", byo "not to be", and nuyo, "don't" at the end of a sentence betrays the fact that the verb form might have been after its object and at the end of a sentence, in accord with the other dialects (1956, p. 306).

14. The Tuchia dialect has, as yet, not been investigated. The name Tuchia means literally "family of the soil", i. e., "people of the soil" which is sometimes used for the Chuang of Kwangsi and is presumably cognate with Tho, a Vietnames term meaning "soil", used in a somewhat similar sense for the Tai of Northern Tonkin (Seidenfaden, 1958, pp. 64-65). LeBar is of the opinion that Tho, Tu, and Chuang are very likely local generic terms referring to an originally undifferentiated Tai population within the area of Kwangsi Kwangtung-Tonkin (1964, p. 30). It is also likely that the Tuchia might have the same origin as Tu, Tho, and Chuang. But this is merely my rank speculation.

Fukienese, and some few Hakka according to the places whereabout their water-living quarters are nearby. Both of them may linguistically be classified as belonging to Han-Chinese.

V

Since the establishment of the Communist Regime in 1950, most of the ethnic minorities related above have been gradually organized into autonomous regions in areas where minorities are concentrated. In those areas inhabited by two or more different minorities, joint autonomous regions have been established. Autonomous regions vary from the provincial level autonomous Ch'ü (區), the Chuan Ch'ü (專區) level autonomus Chou (州), the county level autonomous Hsien (縣), and the township level national Hsiang (鄉). In south China, the only provincial level autonomous region is the Kwangsi Chuang Autonomous Region (廣西僮族自治區) established in 1958 with a population of 19,390,000. The twelve Chuan Ch'ü level autonomous Chou include the Liangshan Yi (涼山彝族自治州) in Szechuan established in 1952, and the Ch'uhsiung Yi (楚雄彝族自治州) in Yunnan in 1958; the Hsishuangpana Tai (西双版納傣族自治州), the Nuchiang Lisu (怒江傈僳族自治州), and the Tali Pai (大理 白族自治州) are also in Yunnan established in 1953, 1954, and 1956 respectively. The other seven are joint autonomous Chou, five of which including the Miao, namely, the Hainan Li and Miao[15] (海南黎族苗族自治州 1952), Southern Kweichow Puyi and Miao (黔南佈依族苗族自治州 1956), Southeastern Kweichow Miao and Tung (黔東南苗族侗族自治州 1956), Western Hunan Tuchia and Miao (湘西土家

15. The Miao of Hainan Island are actually the Yao according to language, custom, and tradition (Wang, 1948, pp. 4-7; de Beauclair, 1956, p. 22; LeBar et al, p. 86).

族苗族自治州 1957), and Wenshan Chuang and Miao (文山僮族苗族自治洲 1968). The remaining two are the Tehung Tai and Chingpaw (德宏傣族景頗族自治州) and the Hungho Hani and Yi (紅河哈尼族彝族自治州) established in 1953 and 1957 respectively. In addition, there are twenty one county level autonomous Hsien[16] and nine joint autonomous Hsien[17] apart from one hundred or more township level national Hsiang.

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16. The county level autonomous Hsien are as follows:
The Miao (苗族) ——Ch'engpu (城步), Hunan, 1956;
Tamiaoshan (大苗山), Kwangsi, 1952;
Sungt'ao (松桃), Kweichow, 1956;
P'ingpien (屏邊), Yunnan, 1958.
The Yi (彝族) ——Oshan (峨山), Yunnan, 1951;
Ninglang (寧蒗), Yunnan, 1956;
Weishan (巍山), Yunnan, 1956;
Lunan (路南), Yunnan, 1957.
The Tung (侗族) ——T'ungtao (通道), Hunan, 1954;
Sanchiang (三江), Kwangsi, 1952;
Hsinhuang (新晃), Hunan, 1956.
The Kawa (佧佤) ——Tsangyuan (滄源), Yunnan, 1958.
The Yao (傜族) ——Tayaoshan (大傜山), Kwangsi, 1952;
Chianghua (江華), Hunan, 1955;
Tuan (都安), Kwangsi, 1955;
Pama (巴馬), Kwangsi, 1956;
Hokou (河口), Yunnan, 1958.
The Nasi (納西) ——Lichiang (麗江), Yunnan, 1958.
The Lahu (拉祜) ——Lantsang (滄瀾), Yunnan, 1953.
The Sui (水族) ——Santu (三都), Kweichow, 1957.
The Ch'iang (羌族)——Mouwen (茂汶), Szechuan, 1958.

17. The county level joint autonomous Hsien are as follows:
Lungsheng All Minorities (龍勝各族), Kwangsi, 1951;
Lunglin All Minorities (隆林各族), Kwangsi, 1953;
Weining Yi, Hui, and Miao (威寧彝族回族苗族), Kweicow, 1954;
Chiangcheng Hani and Yi (江城哈尼族彝族), Yunnan, 1954;
Menglien Tai, Lahu, and Kawa (孟連傣族拉祜族佧佤族), Yunnan, 1954;
Kengma Tai, and Kawa (耿馬傣族佧佤族), Yunnan, 1955;
Kungshan Tulung and Lutzu (貢山獨龍族怒族), Yunnan, 1956;
Tunghsin All Minorities (東興各族), Kwangtung, 1958;
Lienyang All Minorities (連陽各族), Kwangtung, 1959.

Besides what we have related above, there are many other ethnic groups who are less known to us. They number altogether a million or so. Most of them have been sinicized or are under process of acculturation and even of physical assimilation, so that their original distinctions have become blurred and, therefore, reduced in many instances to differences in language and minor social usages (Mickey, 1947, Preface by Coon). It seems somewhat likely that the trend is turning in the direction of further intermingling of all the minorities and the elimination of all ethnic differences, although no one can tell you how long or how far it will run.

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VII. THE MIAO: THEIR ORIGIN AND SOUTHWARD MIGRATION

I

The Miao now mostly interspersed among the Han-Chinese are concentrated in Kweichow, their heartland, but are also found in the provinces of Yunnan, Szechuan, Hunan, Kwangsi and on the island of Hainan[1]. The Communist regime constituted the Miao areas some ten autonomous regions. The Statistical Bureau of Peking reports their population in 1954 as 2,511,339. Of these about 1,800,000 live within Kweichow. Some groups have migrated southward into the northern parts of Thailand, Laos, and Vietnam, where they are also called Meo (Abadie: 1924, Graham: 1924, Seidenfaden: 1930, Meyer: 1931), and a few others, southwestward into the mountainous Shan States of Burma (Lowis: 1919, Enriquez: 1933).

In the use of the designation Miao, many scholars interested in the study of ethnohistory of China have been perplexed by the confusion of its sense synonymous with Man, Man-Yi or Nan-man. It is merely because that they failed to distinguish the different meanings of the term used at different periods and in different contexts. Besides, the complicated situation of the ethnic groups ambiguously designated by these terms in the history

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1. The Miao on Hainan are actually the Yao according to their language, custom, and tradition (Wang Hsing-jui: 1948, pp. 4-7; de Beauclair: 1956, p.22).

of China also caused many difficulties for them. None of those who have made efforts to clarify the confusion are rewarded with success, although several of them got acquainted with the various ethnic groups known to us either in the Chinese historical records or in the works of modern authors such as Liu Hsi-fan (1934), Hsu Sung-shih (1939, 1946), Chiang Ying-Liang (1948), Eberhard (1942), Eickstedt (1944), Wiens (1954), et al.

In this paper, I shall attempt to present an historical study of the Miao and their migration routes as they have evolved in China throughout the various stages of Chinese history. By the desigantion Miao I distinguish its narrow meaning from the broad by referring the former to the people now called by themselves for the most part the Hmong, Hmung, Hmo or rather rarely, Hsiung, (Ling and Ruey: 1947, pp. 10-14), and refering by the latter to most of the indigenous peoples in south China.

The story is a long one, covering more than four thousand years. But the main outlines can be briefly defined as follows:

1. The Miao as an Ancient Legendary Ethnic Group or Groups —— The Age of the Legendary Miao (ca. '2300-200 B.C.);
2. The Miao hidden under and not distinguished from the collective name Man——The Age of the Unidentified Miao (ca. 200 B.C.-1200 A.D.);
3. The Miao as a Modern Ethnic Group or Groups——The Age of the Modern Miao (ca. 1200 A.D. to date).

For our special inquiry concerning the Miao in Chinese history, we shall ask:

(1) What do we know of the early Miao in ancient times?

(2) How shall we describe them since the disappearance of the name Miao?

(3) Why have the Miao migrated toward the south?

Ⅱ

As we know, legends can help us to form some general idea of the origin of a people and roughly to trace their Exodus into the lands they ultimately occupied. However, Savina's hypothesis deduced from the Miao legends that the Miao traveled east and northeastward from the Pamirs through Turkestan and the Tanu Ola Mountains across Siberia, then proceeded south through Mongolia and Shensi to Honan; from Honan they migrated to Kweichow, thence to Szechuan; and from there to Yunnan and Tongking-Laos (1924, p. 247), is not believable for lack of substantial historical or archaeological evidence available to support his interpretation. Frankly speaking, we shall never be able to trace the Miao who now inhabit south China and north Indo-Chinese Peninsula back fully to their original seat or to say precisely where they had their beginning as a distinctive ethnic group and when they left their primeval home. We cannot but trace the land, known to us so far, the Miao first occupied in ancient times by referring to the Chinese Classics.

The Miao are frequently referred to in the Chinese Classics under the compound names "Miao-min", (苗民) the Miao people, "Yu-Miao", (有苗) the Miao, or "San-Miao", (三苗) three groups of the Miao; the last name connotes just a number of Miao groups as interpreted by the present writer. As mentioned in the *Chan Kuo Ts'e*, *Han-Shih Wan-chuan*, and *Shih Chi*, they occupied the country between Lake Tungt'ing to the left and Lake P'engli to the right as well as between Mount Ch'i-shan to the north and Mount Heng-shan to the south, in the region now embraced by the provinces of Shensi, Szechuan, Hupeh, Hunan, and Kiangsi. According

to the *Shu Ching* or Classic of History, *Ta-Tai Li Chi* or Classic of Rites of Elder Tai, and the works of Mencius, Chuang Chou, Prince Liu An, et al, they were banished by the legendary Emperor Shun (舜) (2255?-2206?) to San-wei, which subsequent commentators have identified either with Mount San-Wei-shan in the vicinity of Tunhuang Hsien in northwestern Kansu or of Weiyuan Hsien in southern Kansu. At a later time, remnants of the San-Miao were mostly exterminated by Yu the Great (大禹) (2205?-2198? B.C.), as stated in the *Mo-tzŭ*. Some groups of them fled away to the South Seas as told in Kuo Po's commentaries on the *Shan Hai Ching* or Classic of Mountains and Seas.

The *Shu Ching* says that the Mao (髦) along with other seven tribes, namely, the Yung, Shu, Ch'iang, Wei, Lu, P'eng, and P'u, assisted King Wu (武王) (1121?-1116? B.C.), the first king of the Chou Dynasty (1122?-221 B.C.), in subjugating King Chou (紂王) (1153?-1122? B.C.), the last king of the Shang or Yin Dynasty (1765?-1122? B.C.). *The Shih Ching* or Classic of Odes has the line: "Like Man (蠻) like Mao (髦)", which indicates that there were the Man and the Mao in the early Chou peried. The Mao (髦 and 髦) appeared in both the two Classics have been identified with the Miao by subsequent commentators as well as modern scholars (Chang: 1910?, Hsu: 1936, Lin: 1936, vol. 2, p. 188, Ling and Ruey: 1947, pp. 8-11).

Since the twelfth century B.C., the country originally inhabited by the San-Miao became a fief bestowed by King Ch'eng (成王) (1115?-1079? B.C.) on Hsiung Yih (熊繹), the first prince of the feudal state of Ch'u (楚), whose territory was later on expanded by his great-great-grandson Hsiung Ch'ü (熊渠), and later descendants into most parts of south China. The people of Ch'u, as claimed by Hsiung Ch'ü were called Man-Yi, a name

used collectively to refer to all ethnic groups of the State, including inevitably the remnants of the San-Miao. In his *Fah Yen*, Yang Hsiung (53 B.C.-18 A.D.) said: "Ch'in (秦) and Ch'u (楚) oppressed the Li (黎) and the Miao". This indicates that the ancient ethnic groups Li or Chiu-Li (i.e., a number of Li groups not necessarily limited to nine) and Miao or San-Miao were among the various Man-Yi peoples of Ch'in. The rule of the Hsiung line of the Ch'u extended down from 1087 to 223 B.C. and all of the ethnic groups were brought under administrative control soon after 221 B.C., when Shih Huang Ti (始皇帝) of the Ch'in Dynasty succeeded for the first time in unifying all of China.

Ⅲ

The names Miao, Miao-min, Yu-Miao, or San-Miao disappeared from the writings of post-Ch'in periods. Most historians employed the name Man (barbarians) or Nan-Man (southern barbarians) as a general term to denote all the ethnic groups of south China including even those of Indo-China. In his History of the Later Han Dynasty (25-220 A.D.), Vol.116, Fan Yih said that there were the Man of Changsha, Wuling, Lichung, Ch'ungchung, Lingling, T'ushan, Mienchung, Wu, Chianghsia, and Panhsun in the region now embraced by the provinces of western Hunan, southwestern Hupeh, northeastern Kweichow, and southeastern Szechuan. The Biography of Ssu-ma Chün of the History of the Wei Dynasty (386-534), Vol.96 points out eight ethnic groups, namely, the Pa, Shu, Man, Lao, Ch'i, Li, Ch'u, and Yueh in the regions mostly on the south of the Yangtze River, while both the History of the Norihern Dynasties (386-581) and the History of the Sui Dynasty (581-618) tell of the Nan-Man as comprising five ethnic groups of

the Tan, Jang, Li, Lao, and Yi interspersed among the Han-Chinese. None of the authors of the dynastic histories have told of the Miao before the publication of the History of the Yuan (1206-1368) and the Ming (1368-1663) Dynasties. However, Fan Ch'o said of the Miao, in the 860's in his *Man Shu* or the Book of the Barbarians, of Ch'ien, Chin, Pa, and Hsia in the fringe-lands of present-day Szechuan, Kweichow, Hupeh, and Hunan provinces. But the designation Miao is somewhat loosely used as an equivalent of the collective term Man or Nan-Man covering various ethnic groups of the regions concerned.

The Miao designated as the name of a specific ethnic group did not reappear until the 1190's. In his preface to Chu Fu's *Ch'i-Man Tsung-hsiao* or Funny Things of the Stream-Barbarians, Yeh Ch ien pointed out that there were five kinds of aborigines known as the *Wu-ch'i Man* or the Barbarians of the Five Streams, namely, the Miao (猫), Yao (猺), Lao[1] (獠), Chuang (獞), and Keh-lao[1] (犵狫). According to the Chin Annals of Kan Pao, the Man of Changsha, Wuling, and Luchiang inhabited the drainage of the Wu-ch i or the Five Streams. Again, the History of the Southern Dynasties (420-581) says that the Man who have settled in the vicinity of Wuling are called the Wu-ch'i Man, or Five Streams-Barbarians. The five streams are the Hsiung, Man, Ch'eng, Yu, and Wu. As identified by Ch'en Yin-ko, the ethnic group Ch'i stated in the History of the Wei Dynasty are the Man of Changsha and Wuling recorded in the History of the Later Han Dynasty (Ch'en: 1944: 7-11). The *Hsu Ch'ien Shu*, or Supplements to the History of Kweichow of Chang Shu, says that Wuling Chün was called Ch'ien Chung Chün in the Ch'in period. It is the region embraced by the prefectures of Ch'angteh, Ch'engchow, Yuanchow, and Paoch'ing of Hunan Province including also those of Ssuchow, Shihch ien, T ungjen,

Lip'ing, and Ssunan of Kweichow Province in the Ch'ing period (1644-1911).

From the foregoing we Can realize that the Wu-ch'i Man of the Sung period (960-1279)are the descendants of the Wuling Man of the Han Dynasty (206B.C.-220 A.D.).Apparently, the modern Miao as well as the Yao, Lao, Chuang, and Kch-lao all are among the Wuling or Wu-ch'i Man.

Ⅳ

The Wuling Man had ravaged the southern administrative regions of the Han Empire in 47 A.D., the Emperor sent at first general Liu Shang to suppress them, but failed. Two years later, general Ma Yuan and others sailed up the Yuan River and subjugated the Man in the vicinity of the present-day Luch'i Hsien. In the years of 151, 157, and 186, the Wuling Man uprisings were suppressed by the magistrates of local governments.

After the fall of the Han Dynasty, China was divided into three Kingdoms (220-280) in the third century. The division of the Northern and Southern Dynasties following the Western Chin (265-316) in the later three centuries, created a situation for the Man-occupied lands where political control was loose and chaotic. By T'ang times (618-906), the Man territory was restrained by organizing administrative districts. In the turmoil following the T'ang Dynasty known as the Five Dynasties period (907-960), Ma Yin proclaimed himself king of a new state called Ch'u (one of the Ten Independent States of this period) and subjugated the Man. The Sung Dynasty (960-1279) took vigorous steps in opening up the Southern Man Territory resulted in the sinicization of the Man that were willing to submit, but the unsubdued were put to flight into the territories of central

and western Kweichow as far as eastern Yunnan on the southwest and into the areas of Lingnan in Kwangtung and Kwangsi on the south.

The above account indicades that many of the ethnic groups of the Wuling Man, including the Miao, Yao, Lao, Chuang and Keh-lao as first pointed out by Yeh Ch'ien, had been forced by the Han-Chinese pressure to migrate away from their stronghold of western Hunan and eastern Kweichow toward south and southwestward directions. In view of their present distribution: the Miao in the regions as stated in the beginning of this paper; the Yao in Kwangsi, northern Kwangtung, southwestern Hunan, and south eastern Yunnan; the Lao or Keh-lao (Ruey: 1948) in Kweichow, western Hunan, southern Szechuan, eastern Yunnan; and the Chuang or Tai in Kwangsi, western Kwangtung, southeastern Yunnan; it seems very likely that the Miao (under the collective term Man) had been the dominant group and so held good over western Hunan and eastern Kweichow ever since the Han periods. Because of the frequent military operations of the Yuan and Ming Dynasties in the south and Southwest, the Miao were forced to migrate further south and southwestward resulted in their post-Sung Dynasty sinicization and distribution. In the southward direction they cameto northern Kwangsi in small numbers during the Yuan and in larger numbers during the Ming. In the southwestward direction they reached eastern Yunnan during the Ming. In 1381 Emperor Hungwu (1368-1398) appointed general Fu Yu-teh to lead an army to conquer Yunnan which had reverted to the independent rule of local chieftains after the collapse of the Yuan Dynasty. Fu entered Kweichow from Hunan along the Yuan River which is the same route Ma Yuan subjugated the Wuling Man in the first century as stated above. It is readily understandable that with general Fu's large army burdening the area, many Miao were compelled to migrate toward

south and southwestward. Since then some subgroups of the Miao have been known to us. As recognized by T'ien Ju-cheng, Governor of Kwangsi during the reign of Emperor Chiaching (1522-1566), there were nine subgroups of the Miao, namely, the K'eh-meng, Ku-yang, Chiu-ming-chiu-hsin, Chih-chiang, Mai-yen, Tuan-ch'ün, Pa-fan-tzu, Heh, and Yao (夭) in Kweichow. In his *Yen-chiao Chi-wen* or Notes on the Tropic Frontiers, he also asserted that some groups of the Miao brought under provincial administration are called Shu Miao or Ripe Miao, while many more groups not under government control are called Sheng Miao or Raw Miao. And Lu Tz'u-yuan of the early Ch'ing Dynasty pointed out in his *Tung-Ch'i Ch'ien-chih* or Notes on the Caves and Streams, that there were the White Miao, Flowery Miao, Blue Miao, Black Miao, and Red Miao all named according to their costumes.

During the the Ch'ing period more military operations were carried out to suppress the Miao uprisings. The Manchu general Oltai and general Chang Kwang-ssu subjugated the Miao of Kweichow, eastern Yunnan, and northern Kwangsi during the reigns of Emperors Yungcheng (1723-1735) and Ch'ienlung (1736-1795). Fu Nai and Hsi Pao-t'ien subjugatcd the Miao of western Hunan, eastern and southeastern Kweichow during the reigns of Emperors Chiach'ing (1796-1820) and T'ungchih (1862-1874). All these resulted, on the one hand, in the further assimilation of those that were willing to submit, and on the other hand, in the flight of the unsubdued into further adjoining territories of northern Vietnam, Laos, Thailand, and the mountainous Shan States of Burma.

This is the historical process of sinicization in south China — hence the modern distribution of the Miao.

V

The sum of the foregoing description leads us to see the historical fact that, the Miao, known to us so far, were originally inhabiting the midwest of China proper in the last quarter of the third millennium B. C. Some groups had been banished to the northwest, some others fled out of mainland China to the South Seas, and the remainder scattered about, more than four thousand years ago. Later on, they appeared under the name of Mao in the Classic of History during the time when King Wu subjugated the Shang or Yin Dynasty in the twelfth century B.C. and in the Classic of Odes during the eighth century B.C. They had been oppressed by the Ch'u and the Ch'in bureaucracies from the eleventh down to the third century B.C. Since then the designation Miao was hidden under the collective names of Man, Man-Yi, or Nan-Man, they have migrated in course of time under the constant pressures of the Han-Chinese toward the south and southwest. As a result, they were mostly found in the regions southwest of Lake Tung-t'ing and south of the Upper Yangtze. Most probably the Miao were the dominant ethnic group or groups among the Wuling or Wu-ch'i Man that concentrated eventually in the regions of present-day western Hunan, eastern Kweichow and southeastern Szechuan provinces where they established their stronghold in post-Ch'in periods.

Since the Sung Dynasty (960-1279) the designation Miao reappeared as a specific ethnic group. A great number of them were found moved away from their stronghold of western Hunan, eastern Kweichow and Southeastern Sze-chwan to the fringe-lands of Kweichow, Yunnan, and Szechuan on the west and to Kwangsi and Yunnan on the south during the Yuan (1206-1368), Ming (1368-1643), and Ch'ing (1644-1911) periods. From thence they have

migrated southward to the mountainous northern parts of the Indo-Chinese Peninsula during the last century.

When we look at the long history of southward migration of the Miao, a question comes to mind: Why have the Miao migrated toward the south? The answer, of course, is manifold. In the first place, one might say that the constant Han-Chinese military opperations on and political control of the Man, Man-Yi or Nan-Man peoples among whom the Miao, Yao, Chuang, Lolo, Lao or Kelao are the prominant ethnic groups, have resulted in the southward migration of the Miao as well as other ethnic groups. It is true, to a certain extent, because the southward march of the Han-Chinese affected the migration of of the non-Han-peoples.

Nevertheless, migrations are primarily caused by expulsions, or pressures to move nearly always resulted from dearth of food or from over-population (Haddon: 1911, p. 1). It is a sort of driving forces which are called the "pressure pulsations" by Eickstedt (cited in Wiens: 1954, p. 169). There have been the "pressure pulsations" coming successively from the northern desert lands and acting upon the population of the pressure chambers of north China, i. e., the Yellow River Valley, generating dynamic overflows that in turn move southward into the better pressure chambers of central China, i.e., the Yangtze River Valley. Here the inflows create pressures which in turn send forth dynamic streams southward and southwestward into the lesser pressure chambers of south and southwest China, i.e., the Si River Valley and the smaller basins of the Yunnan-Kweichow Plateau. From the latter, the driving forces spill over into the unexploited Indo-Chinese Peninsula. In short, the Han-Chinese have been forced to migrate from time to time under the successive nomadic invasions of the northern desert lands toward the south. In his China's March Toward the Tropics,

Wiens rightly pointed out that Eickstedt traced the Han-Chinese migrations anthropologically in the superimposition of racial characteristics and cultural features by northern groups successively over southern groups and reached the conclusion that this dynamic process is the historical story of the sinicization of Eastern Asia (Wiens: 1954, p. 169).

Although the causes of the migrations are complex and different for different areas, the Miao as well as other minority groups were affected inevitably to move toward the south, to a certain extent, in the same way, but under the constant suppression of northern and central china toward the lesser pressure chambers of mountainous regions of southwestern China. From there, the driving forces also spill over into the sparsely populated northern parts of the Indo-Chinese Peninsula. Thus, we are able to see that what is true of the Han-Chinese is also true of the Miao as well as other ethnic groups, who have been forced to undergo the same dynamic process in their southward migrations.

Having drawn the primary factor of driving forces above, we must further note the secondary factor of inducing forces or atractions causing peoples to move from one area into another. The dynamics of attractions has been the idea that the south is a land of plenty. When population grew too dense in the Yangtze area for much surplus in central China after the two major mass migrations in Chinese history during upheavals in the Yungchia (307-312 A.D.) period of the Western Chin (265-316 A.D.) and in the Chin-k'ang (1126-1127) period of Northern Sung (960-1127), the potentially productive but sparsely settled river valleys south of the Yangtze and small basins of the Southwest Plateau are indeed the attractions that wait to be exploited by the land-hungry Han-Chinese. Thus the Han-Chinese in a situation of economic pressures were induced to move in progressive stages

from the Yangtze Valley southward and southwestward to the regions previously occupied by the Miao and other non-Han peoples that resulted in the interspersing of the former among the latter at first. In further stages, the latter under the vigorous pressures of the former, were forced to migrate to the sparsely settled frontier lands as far as northern parts of Indo-China where the unfavorable environments of humid, hot basins or high, steep mountains promised to deter the rapid advance of the Han-Chinese.

However, war and politics or expulsions and attractions are not the only impulses toward migration. A craving for more land or a seeking for better settlement is only a partial explanation; sentiment, and a reaction against even the slightest of social restraints had a great deal to do with it. The movements of peoples which are sufficiently dramatic for the ordinary historian to record are often of less importance than the quiet, steady drift of a population from one area to another, as pointed out by Haddon (1911, p. 4). If we are to draw valid conclusions with regard to the southward migration of the Miao caused by all these, we must have a much more extensive knowledge and intensive study of the deeper levels of Miao culture content than we now possess and we have already done. It remains to be ascertained by cultural anthropologists.

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